Block 1

Block 1: Introduction to Social Psychology

This block introduces the **nature, concept, scope, and historical development of social psychology**, its relation to other disciplines, key theories in social cognition and attribution, various research methods, and current trends including ethical considerations.

Unit 1: Nature and Concept of Social Psychology and Social Psychology Related to Other Disciplines

This unit defines social psychology, describes its nature and scope, traces its emergence, and explains its relationship with other disciplines like sociology and anthropology.

1.2 Nature and Concept of Social Psychology

- **Definition**: Social psychology is the **scientific study of how people think about, influence, and relate to others**. It emerged at the interface of psychology and sociology.
    - **Floyd Allport (1924)** defined it as "the **scientific study of the experience and behaviour of individuals in relation to other individuals, groups and culture**".
    - **Gordon W. Allport (1968)** defined it as a discipline "that attempts to **understand and explain how the thought, feeling and behaviour of an individual are influenced by the actual, imagined or implied presence of others**".
- **Core Elements of the Discipline**:
    - **Social Psychology is Scientific in Nature**: It uses scientific methods, employing a three-step basic process:
        - **Collection of carefully made observations** with skepticism.
        - **Ordered integration of these observations and statement of general principles**.
        - **Utilisation of these general principles to predict future observations**.
    - **Social Psychology Studies the Experience and Behaviour of Individuals**: It explains human behavior as an interaction of mental states and immediate social situations.
        - **Kurt Lewin's (1951) formula**: **B = f (P, E)**, meaning **behaviour is a function of person and environment**.
        - It studies both observable behaviours and non-observable emotions and thoughts.
        - The social stimulus situation (individuals, groups, culture) and the individual have a reciprocal relationship, with individuals acting as both **respondent and active creator** of the social situation.

    - **Causes of Social Behaviour and Thought**: Five factors most studied that affect social interaction:
        - **Actions and characteristics of others**.
        - **Basic cognitive processes** (memory, reasoning, belief, judgments).
        - **Ecological Variables** (physical environment influences).
        - **Cultural context** (cultural norms, group membership).
        - **Biological aspects** of human behaviour and genetic inheritance.
        - **Basic assumption**: Accurate and useful information about complex social behavior can be acquired through scientific methods.

1.3 Scope of Social Psychology Social psychology aims to understand the relationship between minds, groups, and behaviors in three general ways:

1. **Influence of others on individuals**: How individual thoughts, feelings, and behaviors are influenced by the actual, imagined, or implied presence of others. This includes social perception, interaction, and influence (e.g., trust, power, persuasion). It asks how groups impact individuals and how individuals operate within groups.
2. **Influence of individuals on groups**: How individual perceptions and behaviors influence group behavior (e.g., group productivity, decision making). It explores reasons for conformity, diversity, and deviance.
3. **Groups as behavioral entities**: Understanding groups themselves and the relationships/influences between groups. It asks why some groups are hostile and others neutral, and if groups behave differently than individuals outside the group.

- A fourth "ideological" level is also noted in European textbooks, studying societal forces influencing the human psyche.

1.4 Historical Developments: The Emergence of Modern Social Psychology The discipline branched off from philosophy and later psychology and sociology.

- **1.4.1 Social Thought Before the Advent of Social Science**:

    - **Platonic thought**: Emphasized the **primacy of the state over the individual**.
    - **Aristotelian thought**: Human beings are **social by nature**, and nature guides individuals to live together and form social structures.
    - These traditions became **socio-centered** (social structures determine individual behavior) and **individual-centered** (social systems explained by individual processes) approaches.
    - **Hegel**: State as incarnation of the "objective social mind," from which the notion of **Group Mind** derived.
    - **Individualism**: Inherent to social psychology, explaining social phenomena in terms of individuals. Criticized for self-centered denial of the "other".
        - **Hedonism**: People act to secure pleasure and avoid pain.
        - **Utilitarianism**: Pursuit of the **greatest happiness for the greatest number**.

        - Modern theories of conditioning and motivation often variation of pleasure/utility principle.
    - **Machiavelli and Hobbes**: Introduced concepts of **power and its role in social relationships**, influencing later field theory and social exchange theory.
- **1.4.2 The Second Stage of Development: Social Psychology Emerges as a Discipline**:

    - Three key moments: solving socio-psychological problems from related sciences, separation of socio-psychological problems within psychology and sociology, and description of early independent knowledge forms.
    - Early theories (mid-19th century) were speculative and abstract due to their philosophical and descriptive background:
        - **People's Psychology**:
            - Developed in **Germany** by **Moritz Lazarus and Heymann Steinthal**.
            - Believed the **main force of history is "the people" or "spirit of the whole"** (seen in art, religion, language, myths, customs), with individual consciousness as its product.
            - **Wilhelm Wundt** furthered this, proposing psychology has two parts: physiological (experimental) and people's psychology (for higher mental processes like language, myths, customs, art, which require other methods than experimentation).
            - **Vygotsky criticized Wundt**, arguing that social psychology should study the "solution" (mental activity), not just "crystals" (language, myths, customs). He emphasized the **social nature of individual personality** and the **cultural-historical determination of mental processes**.
        - **Mass Psychology**:
            - Emerged in **France** (late 19th century) with **Scipio Sighele and Gustave Le Bon**.
            - Based on **Gabriel Trade's ideas on irrational movements and imitation**.
            - **Le Bon**: Mass accumulation leads to **depersonalization, predominance of emotions over intellect, loss of intellect, and loss of personal responsibility**.
            - Did not significantly influence the future of academic social psychology.
        - Theory of instincts of social behaviour.
- **1.4.5 The First Textbooks of Social Psychology**:

    - **1908** is considered the year of social psychology's final emergence as an independent discipline, with two books titled "Social Psychology":
        - **William McDougall's *An Introduction to Social Psychology***: Proposed **inborn instincts as the cause of social behavior**, including imitation

and suggestion rooted in biological nature. Despite popularity, it negatively impacted the science by emphasizing irrational/unconscious motives over human understanding/thought.
        - **Edward A. Ross's *Social Psychology***: Dealt with **uniformities in feeling, belief, volition, and action**, explained by capacities for imitation and suggestion among individuals.
    - **James Mark Baldwin's (1897) *Social and Ethical Interpretation in Mental Development*** is also considered an early systematic manual.
- **1.4.6 The Beginning of Experimental Research**:
    - Early 20th century, especially after WWI, marked its metamorphosis into an experimental science.
    - **Norman Triplett (1897)**: First laboratory study on "the dynamogenic effects of pace making," showing **individual performance affected by others' presence**.
    - **Walter Moede (Europe) and Floyd Allport (US)**: Milestones in experimental social psychology.
    - **Floyd Allport (1924)**: Published the **first social psychology textbook extensively using experimental research**, encouraging an experimentally-oriented field. He studied the **social facilitation effect**, where performance improves in the presence of others.
    - **Systemic Investigations (next two decades)**:
        - **Theodore Newcomb (late 1930s)**: Assessed social/political attitudes of college students, showing peer influence.
        - **Muzafer Sherif (1935)**: Studied nature and impact of **social norms**.
        - **Dollard, Doob, and Miller (1939)**: Demonstrated **frustration produces instigation to aggression**.
        - **Kurt Lewin, Lippitt, and White (1939)**: Researched **leadership and group processes**, focusing on small groups.
    - Shift from "group mind" to **importance of individual thought and understanding**.
    - **Kurt Lewin**: Often called the **father of applied social psychology**. Established the **Research Centre for Group Dynamics at MIT (1948)**, believing significant social problems could be investigated experimentally in the laboratory and favoring analyses based on individual understanding of the situation.
    - By mid-20th century, a gap between experimental research and theoretical knowledge emerged.
    - **1950s and later**: Significant theoretical contributions:
        - **Conformity**: Solomon Asch (1956, 1958).
        - **Cognitive Dissonance**: Leon Festinger (1950, 1954, 1957).
        - **Attribution Theory**: Fritz Heider, Harold Kelly, E.E. Jones.
    - Social psychology became closer to cognitive psychology, dealing with thought, judgment, and decision making.
- **1.4.7 Middle Range Theories**:

    - Theories developed to provide theoretical explanations for social psychological research.
    - **Robert Merton**: First proposed the idea.
    - **Definition**: Theories that **account for a specific aspect of social behavior** and are focused rather than global.
    - **Kurt Lewin's field theory** is considered a model.
    - Current middle range theories are concentrated around four trends:
        - **Behaviorism**: Socio-psychological variants of mainstream psychological thought. Major contribution from **Clark Leonard Hull** (intervening variables) and elaboration of **frustration-aggression theory** (Miller and Dollard). Seeks scientific research standards via lab experiments.
            - **Homo Mechanicus** (the reactive man): Society provides stimulus conditions, cues, and reinforcers for behavior. Contributes to studies of socialization, reward, and punishment. **Increasing significance**.
        - **Psychoanalysis**: Socio-psychological variants of mainstream psychological thought. **Theodore W. Adorno's *The Authoritarian Personality* (1959)** is an example, describing traits predisposing individuals to extreme political ideologies.
            - **Homo Valence** (the striving man): Man as a creator of society. Contributes to personality development, socialization, cross-cultural child rearing, aggressive behavior, interpersonal identification, and family interaction. **Decreasing significance**.
        - **Cognitivism**: Socio-psychological variants of mainstream psychological thought. Began with Gestalt psychology and Kurt Lewin's field theory. Basic principle is examination of social behavior from individual cognitive processes.
            - **Homo Sapiens** (the thinking man): Society represented in man's life space. Contributes to studies of attitudes, values, language, thought, group dynamics, and action research. **Maintaining stable significance, increasing significance**.
            - **Theory of cognitive balance**: Main motivating factor is demand for balance in cognitive structure. Related theories include Fritz Heider's balanced structures, Theodore Newcomb's communicative acts, Leon Festinger's cognitive dissonance, and C.E. Osgood & Tannenbaum's congruence. Emphasizes the role of mental formations in explaining social behavior.
        - **Interactionism**: Theories mainly contributed by sociological perspective. Includes **George Herbert Mead's symbolic interactionism**. Also encompasses **role theory and reference group theory**. Attempts to establish social determinants of human behavior through interaction, though fundamental methodological problems remain unresolved.
- **1.4.8 Historical Developments: Summary Table**:

- **The Early years (1908 – 1939)**: Social behavior from innate tendencies/instincts (McDougall). Floyd Allport emphasized experimentation (Social Facilitation Effect). Sherif (social norms), Kurt Lewin et al. (leadership, group processes).
- **The Youth (1940s – 1960s)**: Expansion of scope, every aspect of social behavior included. 1948 revolution favoring thoughtful/purposive behavior over instincts (Kurt Lewin). 1960s: study of group influence, personality traits, and social behavior. Leon Festinger (cognitive dissonance).
- **A Maturing Field (1970s and 1980s)**: Rapid change, new topics (Attribution, gender differences, environmental psychology). Growing influence of cognitive perspective and emphasis on application (health, legal, work, education, population).
- **1990s and beyond**: Continued cognitive influence and application interest. Study of affective states gained impetus. **Multicultural perspective** emerged (universal vs. cultural social behaviors).

1.5 Social Psychology and Other Disciplines Social psychology's central task is the systematic study of the relation between the individual and collective phenomena, overlapping with other social sciences like sociology, anthropology, economics, political science, and sociolinguistics. It is delineated by its method and approach, with some overlap in theories and content.

- **Three Levels of Analysis**:
  - **Societal Level Analysis**: Identifies links between **broad social forces and general patterns of social behaviors** (e.g., economic hard times, class conflicts, homicide rates, voting behaviors). Adopted by sociologists, economists, political scientists.
  - **Individual Level Analysis**: Explains behavior in terms of a **person's unique personality characteristics and life history**. Used by clinical and personality psychologists, emphasizing individual differences in childhood experiences, ability, motivation, and personality.
  - **Interpersonal Level Analysis**: Focuses on a **person's current social situation**, including other people, their attitudes, behaviors, and relationship to the individual. The idea is: "change the social context, individual will change". (e.g., frustrating situations make people angry).
- **1.5.4 Amalgamation of Sociology and Psychology**:
  - Social psychology borrows concepts from both disciplines.
  - Sociology's basic unit: social system (groups, institutions, cultures).
  - Psychology's basic unit: individual.
  - **Individual and social system cannot be studied without reference to each other**.
  - Two forms of social psychology emerged:
    - **Psychological Social Psychology (PSP)**: Emphasis on **subject's mental processes, dispositions, experiences, and immediate social**

situation. Puts individual at the center, focusing on mental peculiarities and individual's position in collective.
        - **Sociological Social Psychology (SSP)**: Emphasis on **subject's place in social order, their socialized roles, and historical social context**. Study of mass phenomena of psyche, psychology of classes, large social groups, group mentality elements (traditions, morals, customs).
    - Another approach emphasizes synthesis, studying both mass mental phenomena and an individual's position in a group.

1.6 Interdisciplinary versus Intradisciplinary Approaches to Social Psychology

- **Interdisciplinary approach**: Emphasizes **incorporation of elements from various disciplines**, especially sociology, cognitive psychology, anthropology, political science, philosophy, and linguistics. Found more at the content level.

- **Intradisciplinary approach**: Conceptualizes social psychology as a **specialty branch within psychology**, defining problems, phenomena, and methods. Focus remains on the **individual against a background of contextual factors**. Social psychological phenomena can be explained on at least four levels: personal attributes, actual situations, social position, and ideologies/belief systems.

- **1.6.1 Social Psychology and Sociology**:

    - Sociology: study of society, social systems, structures, relationships, institutions.
    - Sociology begins with society and works towards the individual, while social psychology reverses the order.
    - Difficult to sharply demarcate due to overlapping "ambiguous middle ground".
    - Free exchange of ideas, methods, and models.
    - Social psychology is more prone to the individual and experimental method, but with expanding applications, it adopts methods like ethnography and qualitative research popular in sociology.
- **1.6.2 Social Psychology and Anthropology**:

    - Anthropology: scientific study of human beings, concerned with mapping human variation (biological, behavioral, cultural), explaining, interpreting, and understanding human behavior development.
    - Main topics: primitive societies, cultural relativism, unity/diversity of human species, human evolution.
    - Social psychology uses anthropological theories about cultures and societies to explain individual behavior in a particular society, providing a clear cultural and social context.
- **1.6.3 Social Psychology and Sociolinguistics**:

    - Sociolinguistics: connects language with society, using theories/methods from psychology, sociology, anthropology.

    - Focused on methodology, based on observation of actual speech behavior.
    - Contributes to understanding language uses and behaviors, providing rich data for theories.
    - Borrows theories from social psychology to draw inferences about behaviors from linguistic data.

Unit 2: Social Cognition: Attribution Theory

This unit examines how people understand themselves and others, focusing on person perception, social cognition, impression formation, and attribution theory.

2.2 Person Perception and Social Cognition

- **Person perception**: How individuals focus on particular traits when forming overall impressions of others.
- **Harold Kelley (1950) experiment**: Demonstrated that a single "central trait" (e.g., "warm" or "cold") could drastically change the overall impression of a lecturer, even if other descriptive traits remained constant.
- **Central Traits**: Certain traits that play an **unusually large role in determining a general impression**. They organize the impression and provide a framework for interpreting subsequent information.
- **Solomon Asch (1946)**: Suggested that central traits alter the meaning of additional descriptive traits (e.g., "determined" means different things when preceded by "warm" vs. "cold").

2.3 Cognitive Algebra: Additive and Averaging Models Models for impression formation:

- **Additive Model (Anderson 1965)**: We **simply add together bits of information** about a person to form a judgment. More positive traits on a list lead to a more positive impression.
- **Averaging Model (Anderson 1974)**: We **add information and then divide by the number of traits to form an average**. The inclusion of additional information doesn't necessarily make the impression more positive; it depends on the nature of the new traits.
- The **averaging model has shown more accurate predictions**.
- **Limitations**: People restricted to small, finite sets of traits; neglects richness of social information.

2.4 Impression Formation

- **Primacy Effect**: The condition where **early information has a stronger impact than later information**. **Luchins (1957)** demonstrated this by showing that whether Jim was initially described as extroverted or introverted strongly influenced the overall impression, even when contradicting information followed. This holds true even if later information is

salient and clearly contradictory.

- **Recency Effects**: Later information is given more credence than early information. Occurs under three conditions:
    - When asked to make a second evaluation after new information.
    - When there is a large time span between initial exposure and new information.
    - If the task implies practice might improve performance.
- **2.4.1 Schemas: Holding our Impressions Together**:
    - **Schemas**: **Organized bodies of information stored in memory**. They represent how the social world operates and allow us to categorize and interpret new information related to the schema.
    - Help people organize impressions of others and avoid being overwhelmed by information.
    - We hold schemas for objects (e.g., automobiles) and for particular people (e.g., mother) or classes of people playing a given role (e.g., teachers).
- **2.4.2 Prototypes**:
    - **Prototypes**: **Schemas that organize a group of personality traits into a meaningful personality type**.
    - **Nancy Cantor and Walter Mischel (1979)** suggested prototypes, like "committed" people (e.g., monks, nuns, activists), can be organized into subordinate (specific types), basic (classes), and superordinate (prototype as a whole) levels of specificity.
    - **Importance of Prototypes**:
        1. Allow people to **recall, recognize, and categorize information** about others more readily, enhancing information processing.
        2. Help **organize the social world**, enabling expectations about others' behaviors from few traits.
        3. Allow people to **plan behavior in social interactions** more readily.

2.5 Attribution: Explaining the Causes of Behaviour

- **Attribution**: An **individual's understanding of the reasons behind peoples' behavior**.

- **Attribution Theory**: Concerned with **how individuals interpret events and how this relates to their thinking and behavior**.
    - **Heider (1958)**: First proposed a psychological theory of attribution.
    - **Weiner and colleagues (e.g., Jones et al., 1972; Weiner, 1974, 1986)**: Developed the major research paradigm.
- **2.5.1 Situational vs. Dispositional Causes**:

    - Behavior is attributed to an **external (situational) cause when external reasons are more plausible**.
    - Behavior is attributed to a **dispositional (internal) factor when external causes are unlikely**.
    - **Jones, Gergen, and Davis (1961)**: Subjects were confident in assessing a candidate's true personality only when traits displayed were contrary to job requirements.
- **2.5.2 Covariation Principle (Harold Kelley 1967)**:
    - Explains how people pinpoint a particular cause for behavior.
    - States that the **chosen cause for an effect is present when the effect is present, and absent when the effect is also absent**.
    - Three specific types of causes an observer can use:
        - **The actor**: The individual demonstrating the behavior.
        - **The entity**: The target person or thing the behavior is directed at.
        - **The circumstances**: The setting where the behavior occurs.
    - To figure out which explanation is correct, we consider three kinds of information:
        - **Consensus**: Degree to which **other people react similarly in the same situation**.
        - **Consistency**: Degree to which the **actor behaves the same way in other situations**.
        - **Distinctiveness**: Extent to which the **same behavior occurs in relation to other people or stimuli**.
    - **Kelley suggests attributions are made to dispositional (person) or situational factors (target/circumstances)**.
    - Research largely supports Kelley's theory, even with missing information.
    - **Restriction**: The theory holds when concrete information is presented, but not as well when people must infer information on their own.
- **2.5.3 From Acts to Dispositions (Edward Goner and Keith Davies 1965)**:
    - Theory of **correspondent inferences**: How a person's behavior can infer their personality and motives.
    - **Correspondent inferences**: Observers' ideas of **how closely an overt behavior represents a specific underlying intention, trait, or disposition**. Greater correspondence when behavior appears to reflect disposition.
    - **Non-common effects**: We learn most from behaviors that lead to consequences that alternative behaviors would not have produced.
    - **Social desirability**: Greater social desirability of an action makes it harder to draw a correspondent inference between act and disposition.
    - **Comparison with Kelley's model**: Jones and Davis focus on identifying particular characteristics/traits for dispositional attribution, while Kelley focuses on general direction (dispositional vs. situational). Kelley considers behavior over time (consistency), which Jones and Davis do not. Neither theory alone provides a complete account.

    - Both theories assume people are logical/rational processors, a view disputed by theorists suggesting **mindlessness** (relying on well-learned patterns called **scripts** for mundane activities).

2.6 Errors in Attribution Despite being thoughtful processors, people are susceptible to errors.

- **2.6.1 The Fundamental Attribution Error**:
    - **Pervasive bias** where people, when rating others, tend to attribute behavior to **stable trait dispositions**, but when rating themselves, perceive their own behavior as more affected by **specific situational influences**.
    - **Explanation 1 (Nature of information)**: When observing others, the individual is perceptually salient; for self-observation, environmental changes are salient.
    - **Explanation 2 (Desire for effective interaction)**: Observers focus on others' internal dispositions for predictability; individuals focus on environment for appropriate behavior.
    - Can negatively affect interpersonal relations.
- **2.6.2 Halo Effects: Assuming Consistency within a Person**:
    - **Halo effect**: Phenomenon where initial familiarity with a person's **positive traits is used to infer other uniformly positive characteristics** (or negative from negative traits).
    - Reflects our **implicit personality theory**: people's notion of what traits are found together in an individual. Seen in media portrayals.

2.7 The Person-Positivity Bias: Looking for the Good in Others

- **Person-positivity bias**: Tendency to **rate others in a predominantly positive way**.
    - People tend to over-attribute good outcomes to internal causes and bad outcomes to external causes.
    - **Pollyanna principle (Marlin & Sting, 1978)**: We enjoy being surrounded by a pleasant world, leading to a propensity to view people positively.
    - **David Sears (1982)**: Observers develop an extra degree of positive regard for **individuals** being evaluated, which doesn't apply to groups, even if individuals within the group are rated positively. We relax evaluation standards for individuals but become stricter for groups. Related to perceived similarity.
- **2.7.1 Assumptions of Similarity**:
    - **Assumed similarity bias**: Predisposition to **assume others are similar to oneself**. Especially pronounced when obvious features like sex and race are similar.
    - Can lead to misperception if others are dissimilar, but can make judgments appear accurate if others are similar, not due to astuteness but categorizing them as similar.

- **2.7.2 Attribution Theory and its Applicability in Education (Weiner, 1980, 1992)**:
    - **Influential theory for academic motivation**. Learners are motivated by feeling good about themselves.
    - Learners' current self-perceptions influence how they interpret success/failure and future behavior.
    - **Explanations for success/failure analyzed by three characteristics**:
        1. **Internal or External**: Origin within us or in the environment.
        2. **Stable or Unstable**: Outcome likely same (stable) or different (unstable) on another occasion.
        3. **Controllable or Uncontrollable**: Factor we can alter (controllable) or not (uncontrollable).
            - Internal controllable (effort), internal uncontrollable (ability).
            - External controllable (easier course), external uncontrollable (abstract subject).
    - **Important assumption**: People interpret environment to **maintain positive self-image**, attributing successes to own efforts/abilities and failures to uncontrollable factors (bad teaching/luck).
    - **Basic principle**: A person's perceptions/attributions for success/failure **determine future effort**.
    - **Four factors influencing motivation**:
        1. **Ability**: Internal, stable, uncontrollable.
        2. **Task difficulty**: External, stable, uncontrollable.
        3. **Effort**: Internal, unstable, controllable.
        4. **Luck**: External, unstable, uncontrollable.
        5. *Note*: Learner's perception determines categorization (e.g., "lucky person" makes luck internal/stable).
    - **Circumstances for persistence at academic tasks**:
        1. Attribute successes to **(a) internal, unstable, controllable factors (effort)** or **(b) internal, stable, little control factors (ability, sometimes disrupted)**.
        2. Attribute failures to **internal, unstable, controllable factors (effort)**.
        3. Not beneficial to attribute success entirely to ability; ideal is "I succeeded because I am competent and worked hard".
        4. When students fail, persistence increases if failure is attributed to **lack of appropriate effort** (teachers should foster conviction they can succeed with best shot).
        5. Repeated failure after serious effort is hazardous; tasks should be arranged so hard work leads to perceived success.
        6. **Define effort correctly**: Devoting **effective academic learning time**; just "trying harder" is insufficient. Avoid implying "laziness".
        7. Students can believe they haven't put forth "best effort" and can improve efforts.
        8. Excessively competitive grading impairs learning.

9. Evaluate students partly on effort; diligent work should lead to success.
10. Best for students to believe their **own behavior leads to success/failure** (internal locus of control). Successful students overestimate this.

- Difficult to alter a student's conviction of lack of ability; it requires changing their self-concept over time.

- **2.7.3 Additional Concepts Related to Attribution Theory**:

  - **Learning Goals**: Individuals seek to **increase competence**; likely to seek challenges for greater competence and respond to failure by increasing effort. Encourage students to set learning goals over performance goals.
  - **Performance Goals**: Individuals seek **favorable judgments or to avoid unfavorable judgments** from others. Likely to avoid challenges unless certain of success, respond to failure with learned helplessness/self-handicapping. Often undesirable, though schools/parents/society overemphasize them.
  - **Learned Helplessness**: **Expectation, based on previous experience, that one's actions cannot possibly lead to success**. More likely from performance goals than learning goals.
  - **Self-handicapping**: Learners **create impediments that make good performance less likely** (e.g., drug use, refusing to practice, reducing effort). Protects self-competence: failure blamed on impediment, success exalted (overcoming impediment). Reduces motivation and performance. More prominent in adolescence, minimized by focusing on effort attributions and self-efficacy. Can be imposed/supported by culture/subculture (e.g., resisting peer norms).
  - **Expectancy-valence models**: Motivation depends on **goal value (valence) and likelihood of success (expectancy)**. Moderate probability of success often leads to most effort.

2.8 Understanding One's Own Behaviour People invest significant cognitive energy in thinking about themselves.

- **2.8.1 Social Comparison: Using others to Understand Oneself**:

  - **Leon Festinger (1954)**: Basic drive to **evaluate one's opinions and abilities**—a need for social comparison.
  - When objective means are lacking (e.g., how good a piano player), people turn to **social reality**.
  - **Social reality**: Understanding derived from **how other people generally think, feel, and view the world**.
  - People compare themselves to **similar others** for relevant information.
- **2.8.2 Knowing Our Emotions**:

  - How we identify emotional states influenced by comparison with others.
  - **Stanley Schacter and Jerome Singer (1962)**: How we label emotional experiences is influenced by the circumstances.

- **2.8.3 Bem's Self-Perception Theory**:
    - **Daryl Bem**: Influential theory on how self-knowledge unfolds.
    - **Two basic claims**:
        - People come to know their **own attitudes, beliefs, and internal states by inferring them from observations of their own behavior and the circumstances** under which they occur (e.g., constantly reading psychology books implies interest in psychology).
        - When **internal cues are weak, ambiguous, or uninterpretable**, the individual is in the same position as an outside observer, relying on external cues of behavior to infer inner characteristics. Conclusion is reinforced if no external incentives (e.g., grades) or clear prior opinions.
    - **Simplicity**: People know themselves merely by observing their own behavior.
    - **Contrast to Cognitive Dissonance Theory**:
        - **Cognitive Dissonance Theory**: Assumes people are motivated to maintain consistency and experience unpleasant **dissonance** from inconsistent beliefs. Reduce dissonance by changing one thought (e.g., "I do not like psychology" changes to "I really do like psychology" due to constant reading).
        - **Differences**:
            1. **Self-perception theory does not assume a motivational state (e.g., dissonance reduction) is necessary** for self-knowledge change; only requires willingness to infer attitudes from actions/circumstances.
            2. Self-perception theory applies when **internal cues of prior beliefs are ambiguous or weak**; cognitive dissonance applies when **internal cues are clear and conflict** with freely chosen behavior.
        - **Resolution**: Self-perception theory explains **creation of new self-knowledge** following behavior not conflicting with clear initial self-views. Cognitive dissonance explains **change in existing self-knowledge** following freely chosen behavior that *does* conflict with clear initial self-views.

Unit 3: Methods of Social Psychology

This unit covers research methods, needs, and aims in social psychology, including data collection, analysis methods (observational, correlational, experimental), ethnography, and evaluation.

3.2 Social Psychological Approach: Needs and Aims

- As a scientific discipline, social psychology embraces three operations:

    - **Careful collection of observation or data**.
    - **Ordered integration of these observations into hypotheses and theories**.
    - **Tests of adequacy of these hypotheses and theories** in predicting future observations.
- **Empiricism**: Advocates **collection and evaluation of data**. **Experimentation is the main source**. Guided by **induction** (general principles inferred from specific cases).
- **Problems in Understanding Human Behavior**:
    - **Reliance on Authorities**: Experts may disagree or be wrong (e.g., effect of violence in media, Galileo's experiment on falling bodies).
    - **Common Sense**: Usually based on widely shared experiences, but can be wrong (e.g., heavier ball falls faster). Events may not align with experience, or there's an erroneous belief of "knowing all along".
    - **Distorted Perceptions**: People look at complex situations with preconceptions; experiences and expectations affect perceptions. **Sir Isaac Newton** failed to see certain lines in solar spectrum because his theory didn't anticipate them ("Our assumptions define and limit what we see").
    - **Replication**: **Reproducibility is the most important criterion of a science**. Other investigators must be able to duplicate observations to support an idea.

3.3 Methods: Formulating the Investigation

- Investigations begin with a question, driven by practical problems or theoretical interest.

- **Theoretical vs. Applied Research**:

    - **Pure theoretical work**: Aims to build basic knowledge and facts about the social world. Mostly conducted in laboratories using experiments.
    - **Applied research**: Provides immediate solutions to immediate problems. Based on natural field settings.
    - Both have relevance for each other; applied studies inform theory, and theories suggest new approaches for problems.
    - **Kurt Lewin (1951)**: "there is nothing so practical as a good theory".
- **Methods are subdivided**:

    - **Methods of Data Collection**: Observations, study of documents, questionnaires, interviews, testing, experiments.
    - **Methods of Analysis**: Statistical (Correlational, Factor analysis), Logical/theoretical (Constructs of typology, explanations).
- **3.3.2.1 Observational Method**:

    - **Definition**: Simply **observe the phenomena under study as it occurs naturally**. Plays a key role in collecting data on overt behavior.
    - **Stages**:
        - **Describing behavior**: Observe behaviors in natural settings, classify, note differences.

        - **From description to causes**: Used to find causes, but caution needed as behavior can have many causes, and temporal order doesn't imply causation.
    - Can be informal/unstructured or formal/structured.
    - **Participant observation**: Researcher participates in ongoing activities of observed group (e.g., Festinger, Riecken, and Schachter's (1956) study of a religious sect).
    - **Non-participant observation**: Observers record behavior but do not participate (e.g., Bales' (1950) Interaction Process Analysis for small groups).
    - **Advantages**: Can be made without disturbing naturally occurring behaviors; even when known, engrossing behavior limits reactivity.
    - **Limitations**: Impossible/difficult to observe past/private behaviors; cannot directly assess perceptions, cognitions, or evaluations. Requires self-report or other techniques for internal states.
- **3.3.2.2 Correlational Method**:

    - **Definition**: A **relationship between two (or more) variables** where systematic change in one accompanies systematic change in others.
    - Determines the **relationship among variables** (e.g., income and happiness).
    - **Correlation coefficient**: Ranges from **+1.00 to -1.00**.
        - **Positive correlation**: Scores move in the same direction.
        - **Negative correlation**: Scores move in opposite directions.
        - **Zero correlation**: No relationship.
        - Magnitude reflects strength; closer to +/-1.00, stronger the relationship.
    - **Key limitation**: **Finding a correlation does NOT imply causality**. A third, unmeasured variable might be causing both. (e.g., TV violence and viewer aggression).
    - Can provide valuable information when experiments are not feasible.
- **3.3.2.3 Experimental Method**:

    - **Dominant research method** for testing theories predicting **causal relationships**.
    - **Goal**: See how a phenomenon changes when the researcher **deliberately modifies environmental features** (If A changes, does B change?).
    - **Terminology**:
        - **Experiment**: A well-controlled test of hypothesis about cause and effect.
        - **Hypothesis**: A testable statement about cause and effect.
        - **Variable**: Something that can occur with different values and be measured.
        - **Independent Variable (IV)**: Hypothesized cause, precisely controlled by experimenter, independent of participant.
        - **Dependent Variable (DV)**: Hypothesized effect, whose values depend on the IV.
        - **Experimental Group**: Group where hypothesized cause (IV) is present.

        - **Control Group**: Group where hypothesized effect (DV) is present (implied to be *absent* of the IV, or present at a baseline level, for comparison).
        - **Random Assignment**: System for assigning participants to groups so each has equal chance.
    - Two basic types: laboratory and natural experiments.
- **3.3.2.4 Quasi-experimental Method**:

    - **Definition**: Conducted in a **natural, everyday life setting** where the researcher has **less than complete control**. High realism, medium control.
    - **Field experiment**: True randomized experiment conducted in an everyday setting.
    - **Comparison with True Experiment**:
        - **Representativeness of data**: Low for both (data may not perfectly represent target population).
        - **Realism of setting**: Low for true experiment, High for quasi-experiment.
        - **Control over setting**: High for true experiment, Medium for quasi-experiment.
    - **Example (Liebert & Baron, 1972 - True Experiment)**: Children randomly assigned to violent/non-violent TV; violent group showed more aggression. Causal link confidently attributed.
    - **Example (Black & Bevan, 1992 - Quasi-experiment)**: Aggression scores of people waiting for/just seen violent vs. non-violent movies. Higher aggression for violent movies. Cannot rule out other explanations as participants not randomly assigned.
    - **Strength**: Can be conducted under natural conditions.
    - **Weakness**: Inferior to true experiment in drawing causal conclusions due to lack of random assignment. Often the only ethical/practical way to study certain social phenomena.
- **3.3.2.5 Experimental Designs**: Used to keep irrelevant features constant and randomly allocate participants.

    - **One shot case study (X O)**: Manipulation (X) followed by observation (O). No comparison, so no way to know if X had an effect (e.g., new teaching method, then measure comprehension).
    - **Post test only control group design (R X O1, R - O2)**: Participants (R) randomly assigned to experimental (X O1) or control (- O2) groups. If O1 and O2 differ, difference caused by X.
    - **Factorial experiment**: **Two or more independent variables manipulated in the same study**. Allows examining **separate (main effects)** and **combined (interaction effect)** effects of variables.
- **3.3.3 Threats to the Validity in Experimental Research**:

    - **Validity**: Extent to which a method measures what it is supposed to measure.

    - Three types of validity maximized: Internal, Construct, External.
    - **Threats**:
        - **Confounding**: Failure to separate two variables, so their effects cannot be independently ascertained (e.g., age and sex confounded).
        - **Social desirability**: Participants keen to be seen positively, reluctant to give honest negative reports.
        - **Demand characteristics**: Cues in setting convey experimenter's hypothesis, leading participants to provide expected responses.
        - **Experimenter expectancy effect**: Experimenter's hypothesis increases likelihood participants confirm it.
    - **Ways to minimize effects**:
        - **Post experimental enquiry (Orne)**: Interview participants after to elicit their belief of experiment's aim and its effect on their behavior.
        - **Unobtrusive measures (non-reactive measures)**: Participants unaware of what is measured, so cannot influence behavior. Reduces social desirability.
        - **Cover story**: False but plausible explanation of purpose to limit demand characteristics.
        - **Experimenter blind**: Experimenter unaware of hypothesis or participant's condition. Minimize experimenter-participant interaction and automate experiment.

3.4 Ethnography

- **Definition**: Literally "writing about peoples" (Greek *ethnos* + *graphia*). A **written description of a particular culture** (customs, beliefs, behavior) based on fieldwork. "The art and science of describing a group or culture".
- **Qualitative research method** with roots in anthropology and sociology.
- Involves observations, data from informants, constructing/acting on hypotheses.
- **Ethnographer participates actively but does not structure the environment**. Discovery-based, aiming to depict actors' activities and perspectives.
- **Multimethod form of research**: **Participant observation forms the base**, with interviewing and action research as later stages. Reduces risks of single data type.
- **Characteristics**:
    - Gathering data from a range of sources (interviews, observations, conversations, documents).
    - Studying behavior in **everyday contexts** rather than experimental conditions.
    - **Unstructured approach to data gathering** initially for key issues to emerge.
    - In-depth study of one or two situations.
- **Steps**:
    - Select culture, review literature, identify variables.
    - Gain entrance, immerse in the culture (often living there for months/years).
    - Gain informants, use chaining process, gather observational transcripts and interview recordings.

    - Data analysis and theory development at the end; strive to induce theory from members' perspectives, avoid preconceptions. Validate theories by going back to members.
- **Other Methods/Concepts**:
    - **Macro-ethnography**: Study of broadly-defined cultural groupings (e.g., "the Indians").
    - **Micro-ethnography**: Study of narrowly-defined cultural groupings (e.g., "young working class women").
    - **Emic perspective**: Research approach to **how members of a culture perceive their world** (main focus).
    - **Etic perspective**: Research approach to **how non-members (outsiders) perceive/interpret behaviors**.
    - **Situational reduction**: Social structures emerge from accumulated effects of micro-situational interactions.
    - **Symbols**: Material artifacts (art, clothing, technology) whose cultural connotations are understood by the ethnographer.
    - **Cultural patterning**: Observation of relationships between two or more symbols. Holistic view: symbols understood as elements of a whole. Methods include conceptual mapping, learning processes, sanctioning processes.
    - **Tacit knowledge**: Deeply-embedded cultural beliefs rarely discussed explicitly by members, inferred by ethnographer.
- Researchers acknowledge their effect on the social world they study and should understand this effect.

3.4.4 Meta-analysis

- **Definition**: **Statistical techniques developed to systematically review and synthesize empirical findings** from many studies on the same topic.
- Pools information from available studies to arrive at an **overall estimate of the finding's size**.
- Tests for **consistency (homogeneity) of findings** across studies. High consistency builds confidence; differing results prompt search for other factors.
- Important tool for understanding social psychological research, countering undue influence from a few interesting studies by combining many findings statistically.

Evaluation

- Strict adherence to scientific procedures can pose problems for social psychology, especially when studying large groups and mass processes where non-pure scientific methods are needed.
- **Subjectivity vs. objectivity**: Information source is always human.
- **Reliability of information**: Ensured through verification of data collecting instruments. Three characteristics:
    - **Validity**: Measures what it's supposed to measure.
    - **Stability**: Consistency of results over time.

    - **Precision**: Exactness of measurement.
- Researcher must consciously determine their social position, as value judgments inescapably exist in social psychology investigations.
- Before investigation, define basic outline, goal, and premises.

Unit 4: Current Trends in Social Psychology and Ethical Issues

This unit examines contemporary applications of social psychology, the growing influence of cognitive and multicultural perspectives, evolutionary social psychology, and critical ethical considerations in research.

4.2 Social Psychology Applications Modern social psychology has broadened its methods and relevance to everyday life, explaining social phenomena across different social and cultural settings.

- **Applied social psychology**: **Utilization of social psychological principles and research methods in real-world settings** to solve individual and societal problems.
- **4.2.1 Population Psychology**:
    - Focuses on **effects of rapid human population expansion and efforts to control it**.
    - Examines **exponential increase** (e.g., Secret of the Persian Chessboard).
    - Social psychology is important for **changing attitudes and enhancing sensitivity** to address population growth challenges.
- **4.2.2 Health Psychology**:
    - Specialty studying **psychological processes affecting development, prevention, and treatment of physical illnesses**.
    - **Major obstacle**: People's reluctance to believe lifestyle changes are needed, often due to fear/anxiety that makes them disbelieve relevant messages (Lieberman & Chaiken, 1992 study on caffeine and breast disorder).
    - Studies effects of **stress** on illness and coping.
    - **Psychoneuro-immunology**: Interdisciplinary field studying **stress, emotional/behavioral reactions, and the immune system simultaneously** (direct link between psychological responses and body's defenses).
    - **Learned hopefulness**: (vs. learned helplessness) for individuals who can solve problems and feel control.
    - **Personality variables** (neuroticism, pessimism/optimism, Type A behavior pattern) predict susceptibility to illness. **Type A's anger component** is linked to coronary problems.
    - **Social support**: Physical and psychological comfort from friends/family; people with social support avoid illness better and recover faster.
    - Focuses on individual lifestyles, perceptions, and attitudes to promote better personal health.
- **4.2.3 Environmental Psychology**:

    - Field dealing with **interaction between the physical world and human behavior**.
    - Studies environmental stressors (noise, temperature, pollution) and negative human impacts (global warming, waste).
    - Pro-environmental behavior can be increased via prompts, rewards, and legalizations.
- **4.2.4 Industrial Organizational Psychology**:
    - Application of social psychology focused on **understanding behaviors in work settings** (industries, organizations).
    - Studies work-related attitudes (job satisfaction, organizational evaluation) and their determinants/consequences.
    - **Work motivation** influenced by cognitive factors, performance outcomes, and perceived inequity.
    - Addresses **organizational conflict** (resource competition, interpersonal causes like stereotypes, prejudice, poor communication) and resolution techniques (bargaining, superordinate goals).
- **4.2.5 Legal System and Social Psychology**:
    - **Forensic psychology**: Shows legal system reality often falls short of ideals.
    - Witnesses/defendants influenced by interrogation/media.
    - **Eyewitness testimony often inaccurate**; attorney/judge behavior influences verdicts.
    - Jurors respond based on cognitive reinterpretation and emotional biases.
    - Psychologists contribute by researching **human cognitive system limits** and communication patterns, important for court hearings.

4.3 Growing Influence of Cognitive Perspective

- **Cognitive factors (attitudes, beliefs, values, inferences) play a key role** in social behavior.
- Understanding social behaviors greatly enhanced by attention to **underlying cognitive processes**.
- Efforts to understand memory, human reasoning, and integration of new information into existing mental frameworks.
- Research explores nature/impact of stereotypes related to memory and social reasoning, and how affect shapes thought and vice-versa.

4.4 Multicultural Perspective

- Addresses criticism of social psychology being predominantly "American" and too reliant on lab experiments that neglect social context.
- Recognizes that **cultural factors are powerful and influence even basic social behaviors**.
- An important topic in its own right, clarifying universal vs. culturally determined aspects of behavior.

4.5 Sociobiology and Evolutionary Social Psychology

- Explores if social behavior is influenced by **biological processes and genetic factors**.
- **Sociobiology**: Discipline based on the idea that many social behaviors result from **evolutionary processes** where behavior patterns contributing to reproduction are strengthened and spread.
- **Evolutionary social psychology**: Suggests social tendencies toward **adaptive behaviors** (for survival) increase in strength over time within a population.
- Recognizes these tendencies change with environmental/social conditions and can be altered by cognitive processes. Some basic assumptions of sociobiology are questioned, such as the idea that behaviors are unchangeable or solely determined by long evolutionary processes.

4.6 Some Ethical Issues in Social Psychological Research Concerns rose after WWII revelations of Nazi medical experiments and US unethical studies like Tuskegee (syphilis study where treatment was withheld).

- **4.6.1 Deception**:
    - **Disguising key elements of a study** often used to avoid influencing subjects' behavior.
    - **Forms of deception (Geller 1981)**:
        - **Implicit deception**: Situation differs from subjects' expectations, leading to incorrect assumptions.
        - **Technical deception**: Equipment/procedures are misrepresented (e.g., cover story about purpose).
        - **Role deception**: Other people in study are misrepresented (e.g., confederate, experimenter posing as student).
    - Raises dilemmas: studying without knowledge, revealing true purpose, inducing stress, or leading subjects to unusual behaviors.
    - **APA guidelines (1972, revised 1992)** address ethical conduct.
- **4.6.2 Informed Consent**:
    - **Subject must voluntarily agree to participate without coercion and understand what it involves**.
    - Researcher must inform potential subjects about procedures, risks/benefits, right to refuse/withdraw without penalty.
    - Exceptions require institutional review board approval.
    - Challenges for social psychologists: not revealing true purpose to avoid bias, though participants should know they are in a study.
- **4.6.3 Debriefing**:
    - At the end, subjects should always be **debriefed**: **explaining in detail the purpose and procedure of the research**.

    - Opportunity for participants to ask questions, express feelings, recover from upset, and learn.
    - For sensitive topics, suggest further resources; offer study results.
- **4.6.4 Minimal Risk**:

    - Guideline to **minimize potential risks to subjects**.
    - **Minimal risk**: Possible risks no greater than those **ordinarily encountered in daily life**.
    - **Risks in social psychology**: Invasion of privacy, stress of various kinds.
    - Subjects must make decisions based on adequate information and leave the study in essentially the same state of mind and body.
    - Research offers new discoveries but carries responsibility to treat participants with sensitivity, high ethical standards, and share results.

Block 2

Block 2: Advance Social Psychology

Unit 1: The Concepts of Social Influence

1.0 Introduction

- **Social Influence** is defined as a change in an individual's thoughts, feelings, attitudes, or behaviors that results from interaction with another individual or group.
- It refers to the change in behavior that one person causes in another, intentionally or unintentionally.
- It can also be defined as the process by which individuals make real changes to their feelings and behaviors due to interaction with others perceived as similar, desirable, or expert.

1.2 Current Research on Social Influence Current research generally uses **experimental methodology** and falls into five main areas:

1. **Minority Influence**: Occurs when a minority subgroup attempts to change the majority.
    - Studies show it's particularly true when the minority group is **consistent**.
    - Leads to **more creative thinking** and better overall solutions in group tasks (e.g., Nemeth and Kwan, 1987 study where minority condition produced more correct solutions).
2. **Persuasion**: Change in attitudes or beliefs based on information received from others, focusing on written or spoken messages.
    - Assumes individuals process messages carefully when motivated and able.
    - **Elaboration Likelihood Model (ELM)** (Cacioppo, Petty, Stoltenberg, 1985): Amount and nature of thinking about a message affects persuasion.
        - Important aspects include source, message, recipient, affect, channel, and context.
        - Utility in persuading healthier choices (e.g., cancer patients, teens at risk from tobacco).
    - **Heuristic-Systemic Models**:
        - **Systemic route**: Argument strength is effective when motivated and able to attend to the message; results in **permanent persuasion**.
        - **Heuristic route**: Persuasion via indirect means (e.g., nonverbal cues, source credibility) when not motivated or unable to attend; results in **temporary persuasion**.
3. **Dynamic Social Impact Theory**: Developed by Bibb Latane (1981).
    - **Social Impact**: Changes in an individual (physiological, cognitive, emotional, behavioral) due to the presence or action of others.
    - Impact of an information source is a function of three factors:
        - **Number** of others in the source.
        - Their **immediacy** (closeness).

        - Their **strength** and **salience/power**.
    - Predicts diffusion of beliefs, leading to localized cultures and clustering of beliefs within networks. Views society as a **self-organizing complex system**.
4. **Social Influence Network Theory**: (Friedkin, 1998).
    - Involves a **two-weighted averaging of influential opinions**.
    - Actors modify their opinions based on a "norm" opinion (weighted average of others' opinions) and their initial opinion.
    - Uses mathematical models and quantifications.
5. **Expectation States Theory**: (Berger et al., 1980).
    - Explains how groups of status equals develop **inequalities in influence**.
    - Group members develop **expectations about future task performance**, which guide and are maintained by interaction.
    - Those with **highest expectations** are most influential.

1.3 Areas of Social Influence Three main areas: **Conformity**, **Compliance**, and **Obedience**.

1.3.1 Conformity

- **Definition**: Changing how you behave to be more like others. Process by which an individual's attitudes, beliefs, and behaviors are conditioned by what is conceived to be what other people might perceive.
    - Influenced by subtle unconscious influences or direct social pressure.
    - Occurs even by "implied presence" of others (e.g., following norms alone at home).
    - Often driven by a desire for **security within a group** and to **avoid social rejection** (e.g., bullying, criticism).
    - Factors determining conformity: group size, unanimity, cohesion, status, prior commitment, and public opinion.
- **Asch's (1951) Experiment on Conformity**:
    - **Method**: Groups of 7-9 college students (mostly confederates) judged matching line lengths. Genuine subject was next-to-last. Confederates deliberately gave wrong, unanimous judgments on 12 of 18 trials.
    - **Results**:
        - Participants, who could pick the correct line 99% of the time alone, went along with the erroneous group judgment **75% of the time**.
        - Conforming subjects knew the answer was wrong but conformed to avoid looking foolish or because they assumed others saw something they didn't.
        - **Small groups (even 3 people)** were sufficient to induce the effect.
        - About **25% remained independent**.
        - Presence of **one dissenter** was enough to free most subjects from conformity.
        - **Private responses** destroyed the conformity effect.

    - **Significance**: Showed strong power of **group pressure** on individual judgment, even when the majority is clearly wrong. Replicated in 1997 with similar results, suggesting the effect persists beyond the 1950s era of conformity.
- **Factors Increasing Conformity** (based on Asch's experiment follow-up):
    - **Attractiveness** of other group members.
    - **Complexity or difficulty** of the task.
    - **Group cohesiveness** (friendships/mutual dependencies).
- **Informational Social Influence**: Occurs when one turns to group members to obtain **accurate information**, especially when a situation is **ambiguous** or during a **crisis**.
    - Often results in **internalization or private acceptance** (genuinely believing the information is right).
    - **Sherif's autokinetic experiment (1936)**: Participants in a dark room estimated the movement of a stationary light; over time, they converged on a common estimate, simulating how social norms develop.
    - **Eyewitness identification study (Baron, 1996)**: High motivation for accuracy increased conformity in a difficult task (51% vs 35%), as people relied on others for correct answers.
- **Normative Social Influence**: Occurs when one conforms to be **liked or accepted** by group members.
    - Usually results in **public compliance** (doing/saying something without believing in it).
    - **Asch's experiment** is a classic study of this phenomenon.
    - **Hodges and Geyer (2006) reinterpretation**: Suggested Asch's subjects were not as conformist as believed, highlighting people's tendency to tell the truth.
    - Is a function of **Social Impact Theory** components: number of people, group strength (importance to person), and immediacy (closeness in time/space).
    - **Eyewitness study (Baron, 1996) on normative influence**: When accuracy was less important (easier task), low motivation group conformed more (33% vs 16% for high motivation), showing willingness to be wrong to avoid social disapproval.
    - Friends may exert less normative pressure in some situations due to existing acceptance, but can also exert influence (e.g., cigarette/alcohol abuse).
- **Minority Influence and Conformity**: Minority subgroups can influence the majority, especially when they present a **clear and consistent case**.
    - More likely if minority members are perceived as **experts**, **high in status**, or have **benefited the group**.
- **Gender and Conformity**: Females are generally **more likely to conform than males**.
    - **Meta-analysis (Eagly & Carli)**: Women are more persuasible and conforming in group pressure situations involving **surveillance**. Less likely to conform without surveillance.
    - **Sistrunk and McDavid study**: Females more susceptible to social pressures, conforming more on masculine questions, while males conformed more on feminine questions.
    - **Group composition**: Both men and women conformed more in mixed-sex groups than same-sex groups.

    - Normative social influence explains gender differences in ideal body image pursuit (e.g., women dieting/eating disorders, men through steroids/overworking).

1.3.2 Compliance

- **Definition**: Responding favorably to an explicit or implicit request offered by others. The target recognizes they are being urged to respond in a desired way.
- **Principles Observed by Robert Cialdini** (who studied compliance professions from the inside):
    - **Reciprocation**: "Treat others as you would expect to be treated." Doing a favor creates an obligation to accept reasonable requests in return.
        - Example: Guilt arousal increases compliance (e.g., people induced to guilt made more phone calls for a cause).
    - **Credibility**: More likely to comply if the source is an **expert** or highly credible.
        - Example: Students changed their opinion on sleep duration more when advised by a Nobel Prize-winning physiologist than a YMCA instructor, demonstrating that high credibility increases compliance.
    - **Liking/Friendship**: People are more likely to say yes to those they **know and like** due to **Social Exchange Theory** (relationships based on cost-benefit analysis).
        - Example: Higher intimacy in romantic relationships correlated with estimated success of health-related behavioral appeals delivered by partners.
    - **Scarcity**: Perceived scarcity increases desirability. People don't want to be left out.
        - Example: Cookies rated higher in liking, attractiveness, and cost when only 2 were in the jar (scarce) vs. 10 (abundant).
    - **Social Validation** (Principle of Conformity and Consensus): People are more willing to take a recommended step if they see **evidence that many others, especially similar others, are taking it**.
        - Example: "Plea plus neighborhood feedback" condition (receiving total amount recycled and participation percentage) showed most lasting recycling participation.
        - Manufacturers claim products are "fastest growing" or "best selling".
    - **Commitment**: Loyalty cards/bonuses induce commitment, making it harder to change where one shops or what one purchases.
- **Four Compliance Strategies**:
    - **Foot-in-the-door (FITD) Technique**: Getting a person to agree to a **large request** by first getting them to agree to a **modest request**.
        - Example: Housewives who first answered a few questions about household products were twice as likely to allow men into their homes for a 2-hr enumeration compared to those asked only the larger request. Works well for pro-social requests and online.
    - **Door-in-the-face (DITF) Technique**: First making an **extremely large request** that will be refused, then following with a **more reasonable request**.

        - Explanation: Form of reciprocity (first refusal creates sense of debt/guilt) or reference point (second offer looks like an improvement).
        - Example: Students refusing to volunteer for 2 years of juvenile counseling were then 3 times more likely to chaperone a one-day trip to the zoo (50% vs 17% for direct zoo request).
    - **Low-Ball Technique**: Offering an item/service at a **lower price** than intended, then **raising the price** after commitment.
        - Relies on initial attractiveness to gain agreement and maximizing buy-in (e.g., verbal/public commitment) before changing the agreement.
        - Example: Students agreed to participate in an experiment before being told it started at 7 am. None withdrew, and 95% showed up, compared to 24% who agreed when told the time upfront.
    - **Ingratiation**: (Not explicitly detailed as a strategy in the prompt's listed sections, but mentioned as a general concept in Unit 3).

1.3.3 Obedience

- **Definition**: A form of social influence where an individual acts in response to a **direct order from an authority figure**.
    - Assumed that without such an order, the person would not have acted that way.
    - Differs from compliance (choice/peer influence) in that **obedience implies no choice** or belief in no choice.
    - Involves a **hierarchy of power/status**.
- **Humans are indoctrinated to obey authority figures** from birth (parents), through schooling (teachers), and in careers (managers).
- **Forms of Obedience**: To laws, social norms, monarchs/governments, religion/church, God, self-imposed constraints, spouse/parent, management.
- **Cultural Attitudes to Obedience**:
    - Historically, obedience was a **virtue** in many traditional cultures (children to elders, slaves to owners, serfs to lords).
    - Since WWI & WWII genocides, obedience is regarded as **less desirable** in Western cultures.
    - Civil rights and protest movements led to reduced respect for authority and greater respect for **individual ethical judgment**.
- **Obedience Training of Human Beings**: Social animals (like humans) can be trained to be obedient using operant conditioning.
    - **Childhood socialization**: Learning to obey adult rules.
    - **Military training**: Soldiers are gradually conditioned to obey increasingly demanding orders, starting with trivial tasks, leading to "knee-jerk obedient response" in dangerous situations.
- **Experimental Studies of Human Obedience**:
    - **Milgram Experiment (1960s)**:
        - **Purpose**: To understand how Nazis got ordinary people to participate in mass murders.

        - **Method**: Participants (teachers) were ordered by an experimenter (authority figure) to administer increasing electric shocks (fake) to a "learner" (confederate) for incorrect answers. The learner pretended to be shocked.
        - **Results**: A majority of civilian volunteers obeyed orders to apply electric shocks up to dangerous levels (450 volts), contrary to expectations. It demonstrated that **obedience to authority was the norm, not the exception**.
        - **Milgram's conclusion**: Problems lie in societal structure; people follow orders of superiors and don't feel directly responsible. Obedience increased with the **prestige of the authority figure**.
    - **Stanford Prison Experiment (1971)**:
        - **Purpose**: Studied behavior of people in groups and willingness to obey orders and adopt abusive roles.
        - **Method**: Volunteers divided into "guards" and "prisoners" in a mock prison. Experimenters acted as initial authority, delegating to guards.
        - **Results**: Guards enthusiastically became abusive, going beyond initial instructions to dominate prisoners. Prisoners adopted submissive roles despite knowing it was an experiment.
        - Demonstrated **obedience** (guards to experimenters, prisoners to guards/experimenters) and high levels of **compliance and conformity**.
    - **Hofling Hospital Experiment (1966)** (Field experiment):
        - **Method**: Nurses were ordered by an unknown doctor to administer a dangerous overdose of a fictional drug to patients, violating several hospital rules.
        - **Results**: **21 out of 22 nurses** would have given the overdose.
        - **Significance**: Demonstrated high obedience to authority in a naturalistic setting, even when it meant violating clear rules.
- **Factors That Increase Obedience** (Milgram's findings):
    - Commands given by an **authority figure** (vs. another volunteer).
    - Experiments done at a **prestigious institution**.
    - Authority figure was **present in the room** with the subject.
    - Learner was in **another room**.
    - Subject did not see other subjects **disobeying** commands.
    - **Other factors**: Desire for rewards, avoiding negative consequences, belief in legitimate authority, justification by assigning responsibility to authority, defining behavior as routine, not wanting to be rude, and **entrapment** (obeying easy commands first then feeling compelled to obey more difficult ones – illustrates **foot-in-the-door phenomenon**).

Unit 2: Pro-social Behaviour and Factors Contributing to Pro-social Behaviour

2.2 Pro-social Behaviour

- **Definition**: Any **voluntary act performed with the goal of benefiting another person**.
    - May include helping, sharing, giving, comforting.
    - Focuses on potential benefits to the performer, but main goal of benefiting others.
- **Pro-social Behaviour and Altruism**:
    - **Altruism**: Any form of **voluntary act intended to favor another without expectation of reward**.
        - Specific kind of motivation to benefit another **without consciously considering self-interest**.
        - Not a synonym for pro-social behavior, as pro-social behavior may involve benefits to self (e.g., tax exemption for charity donation).
- **Historical Aspects**:
    - Term introduced in early 1970s after the **Kitty Genovese case (1964)**: 38 neighbors ignored a woman being repeatedly stabbed and murdered.
    - Led to research by Darley & Latane on **Bystander Apathy/Effect**.
    - **Bystander Effect**: **Greater the number of people present, the less likely people are to help** a person in distress. Observers are more likely to act if few or no other witnesses.
        - **Experiment (Latane & Darley, 1969)**: Smoke filling a room. Alone (75% reported), with two others (38% reported), with two confederates ignoring (10% reported).
        - **Factors contributing**:
            - **Diffusion of responsibility**: Responsibility to act is shared among observers, so individuals feel less pressure.
            - **Need to behave in socially acceptable ways**: If others don't react, individuals interpret it as no response being needed.
            - **Ambiguity of situation**: Less likely to intervene if situation is unclear (e.g., "lover's quarrel" in Genovese case).

2.3 Pro-social Behaviour in Emergency Situations (Darley & Latane, 1969 - Five-step response)

1. **Noticing the Emergency**: Must notice the emergency. Being in a hurry can prevent noticing (e.g., Darley and Batson, 1973 seminary students).
2. **Interpreting an Emergency as an Emergency**: Bystander must interpret the event as an emergency.
    - **Pluralistic Ignorance**: When others are present, people assume an emergency is innocuous because they look to others' blank expressions (informational influence).
3. **Assuming Responsibility**: Someone must take responsibility.
    - **Diffusion of responsibility**: Each bystander's sense of responsibility decreases as witnesses increase.
4. **Knowing what to do**: Must know what form of assistance to give.
5. **Making the Decision to Help**: Even if knowing what to do, might not intervene due to feeling unqualified or fear of costs. Addressing a **specific person by name** increases helping, regardless of group size.

2.4 Factors Affecting Helping Behaviour

- **Physical Attractiveness**: Physically attractive people are **more likely to receive help**. Society tends to treat attractive individuals differently.
- **Similarity and Kinship**: More likely to help similar or likable others, and close kin.
    - **In-group bias**: Care more for victims in their in-group.
    - **Attitude similarity** signals kinship, motivating pro-social behavior.
- **Religiosity**: Correlated with giving.
- **Victim's Perspective**: Taking the victim's perspective consistently leads to **greater empathy and altruistic behavior**.
- **Personal Experience**: Knowing a victim or having a similar personal experience increases empathy and likelihood to help (e.g., rape victims empathizing more with other rape victims).
- **Identifiable Victim Effect**: People give **more to identifiable victims** (e.g., specific images/stories) than to unidentifiable or statistical victims.
- **Attributions Concerning Victim's Responsibility**: More likely to help victims whose needs arise from **external rather than internal causes** (e.g., disabled children are deserving, unemployed men are not). Mediated by sympathy.
    - Example: More likely to help a 'blind' rather than 'drunk' confederate who collapsed.
- **Positive Friend Influence**: Friends can socialize pro-social behavior. Adolescents with friends are more pro-social.
- **Gender**: Females engage in pro-social behaviors **more frequently**.
    - Men more likely to help in **chivalrous, heroic ways**; women in **nurturant ways involving long-term commitment**.
- **Age**: Older adolescents may place less importance on pro-social values and display more antisocial behaviors. Prosocial moral reasoning and perspective-taking may increase into early adulthood.
- **Personality**: Prosocial personality linked to sociability, low shyness, extroversion, and agreeableness. Different kinds of people help in different situations.
- **Effects of Positive Moods: Feel Good, Do Good**: People in a good mood are **more likely to help**.
    - Example: Finding a dime increased helping behavior (84% vs 4%).
    - **Reasons**: Good moods lead to sympathetic interpretations, prolong good mood, and increase self-attention (leading to behavior aligned with altruistic values).

2.5 Theoretical Perspectives

- **Social Learning Theory (Bandura)**: Pro-social behavior is **learned** by observing role models (parents, authorities) and through reinforcement (rewards for helping, punishments for unhelpful behavior).
- **Motivation Perspective**: Differentiates between:
    - **Altruistic pro-social behavior**: Motivated purely by desire to **increase another's welfare**.

    - **Egoistic pro-social behavior**: Motivated by desire to **increase one's own welfare** or group/cause through helping.
- **Social Identity Theory**: People identify with groups to enhance self-esteem, leading to **in-group favoring behaviors**. Group identification leads to cooperative behaviors consistent with group norms.
- **Biological Perspective**: Genes play a role; approximately **50% of variance in altruism, empathy, and social responsibility is due to genes** in adulthood.

2.6 Negative-State Relief Hypothesis

- Views empathic concern as being accompanied by feelings of **sadness** that the helper tries to relieve through helping.
- Motivation for pro-social behavior is to **increase the welfare of both helper and helpee**.
- **Features**: Helpers experience empathic concern, this concern is accompanied by sadness, helpers relieve feelings by helping.
- Example: High empathy participants less inclined to help if praised, as praise lifted their mood, making helping unnecessary for mood relief. Guilty people are more likely to help (e.g., churchgoers after confession).

2.7 Empathy – Altruism Hypothesis (Batson)

- Claim: Feeling **empathic emotion** for someone in need evokes **altruistic motivation** to relieve that need. Greater empathy = greater altruistic motivation.
- **Example (Toi & Batson, 1982)**: High empathy participants helped injured student regardless of cost, while low empathy participants helped only if the cost of not helping was high.
- **Empathic-Joy Hypothesis (Smith, Keating, Stotland, 1989)**: Empathic concern is sensitivity to a victim's emotional state, leading to **vicarious happiness and relief upon fulfillment of recipient's needs**.
    - Helpers regard empathic joy as more achievable/rewarding.
- **Self-Efficacy Hypothesis (Midlarsky, 1968)**: Individual's **competence with a given skill** influences helping, especially in need. Increases likelihood of helping by increasing certainty and decreasing fear of mistakes.

2.8 Reciprocity and Social Norms

- **Reciprocity**: Individuals act more cooperatively in response to positive behavior of others. Giving can be motivated by expectation of future reciprocity.
- **Social norms**: Guide behavior and can influence generosity.

2.9 Current Trends

- Genetics contribute to pro-sociality (heritability increases with age).
- Cultural differences in helping strangers observed (e.g., proportion helping in 23 cultures ranged from 22% to 95%).

- **Reasons for cultural differences**: Industrial societies value competition/personal success; non-industrial societies promote altruism through home cooperation.

Unit 3: Interpersonal Attraction

3.2 Interpersonal Attraction

- **Definition**: A force acting between two people that tends to draw them together and resist their separation. How much we like, love, dislike, or hate someone.
- Humans are **social animals**; attraction forms social networks, providing security and satisfying the need to belong.
- Factors: Physical attractiveness, propinquity, familiarity, similarity, complementarity, reciprocal liking, reinforcement.
- Often attracted to those **similar to themselves** (strong for perceived attitude similarity).
- **Ingratiation**: Pretending to agree for personal gain; works best at ~70% agreement (less isn't enough, more is suspicious).

3.2.1 Physical Attractiveness

- Most people show a **substantial preference for attractive persons**.
- **Stereotype**: People assume attractive individuals possess **socially desirable personality traits** (e.g., kindness, outgoing, sociable, successful, intelligent, mentally healthy).
    - Example: More attractive defendants evaluated more positively and with less certainty of guilt in jury simulation.
- **Job-Related Outcomes**: Physical attractiveness has a moderate impact on hiring, salary, and promotion.
    - Example: Attractive men and women earned more per year (e.g., $5,200 for men, $4,200 for women). Being overweight significantly reduced men's starting salaries.
- **Personality vs. Attractiveness (Feingold, 1992 meta-analysis)**: No significant relationships found between physical attractiveness and basic personality traits like intelligence, dominance, self-esteem, mental health.

3.2.2 Propinquity/Proximity

- **Propinquity Effect**: "The more we see and interact with a person, the more likely he or she is to become our friend or intimate partner". Similar to **mere exposure effect**.
- **Proximity as an Intensifier of Sentiments**: The closer two individuals are geographically, the more likely they are to be attracted.
    - **Studies**: Stronger friendships with those in shared classes, dorms, or sitting nearby.
    - **Festinger, Schachter, and Back (1950) housing project study**:
        - Friendships developed more frequently between **next-door neighbors**; declined rapidly with distance.

        - Architectural features increasing proximity (e.g., stairways, mailboxes) increased popularity.
        - **Integrated housing** (increased proximity) led to increased racial harmony.
- **Increased Probability of Acquiring Information**: Proximity allows opportunities to **obtain information** and experience rewards/punishments from others.
    - **Tendency for proximity to breed attraction**: Newcomb (1956) hypothesized proximity produces positive attraction because interaction is usually reinforcing.
- **Heider's Balance Theory (1958)**: People strive for **harmonious sentiment relationships** with their perception of **unit relationships**.
    - **Sentiment**: Positive or negative attitude.
    - **Unit relationship**: Separate entities perceived as belonging together (e.g., family members, proximity).
    - **Principle**: Proximity leads to a perception of a unit relationship, which should induce a harmonious sentiment (liking).
    - **Darley and Berscheid (1967) study**: Women liked a person more if they anticipated interacting with them intimately (discussion partner) compared to a person they wouldn't meet. This "unit formation" feeling due to anticipated proximity can induce liking even before actual interaction or knowing rewards.

3.2.3 Similarity

- **"Birds of a feather flock together"**: Similarity is a crucial determinant of attraction.
- **Attraction-similarity model (Morry, 2007)**: Actual similarity leads to initial attraction; perceived similarity develops in ongoing relationships (self-serving or relationship-serving). Perceived similarity predicts attraction better than actual similarity.
- **Similarity in Different Aspects**: People are attracted to others similar in:
    - **Demographics**: (e.g., shared backgrounds, academic achievements, political views).
    - **Physical Appearance**: (e.g., **matching hypothesis**: partners similar in attractiveness expressed most liking).
    - **Attitudes**: (Byrne, 1971 "law of attraction") Attraction is positively related to proportion of attitude similarity. Similarity promotes social attraction, dissimilarity leads to dislike.
    - **Social and Cultural Background**: Similar economic status, religious background, political orientation, socio-economic status.
    - **Personality**: Positively correlated with interpersonal attraction (e.g., agreeableness, conscientiousness, extroversion).
    - **Interests and Activities**: Activity similarity predicts liking judgments.
    - **Social Skills**: Tactical similarity positively correlated with partner satisfaction.
- **Effects of Similarity**:
    - **Initial attraction**: High attitude similarity increases initial attraction; high dissimilarity decreases it.
    - **Relationship commitment**: Similarity in intrinsic values linked to commitment and stability.

3.2.3.3 Complementarity

- **"Opposites attract"**: Explains how complementary interaction increases attraction.
- Partners who are **dissimilar in dominance** often report highest loving and harmonious relationships (e.g., one dominant, one submissive).
- Attracted to people who complement us because it allows us to maintain preferred behavior and provides self-validation.

3.2.3.4 Principles of Similarity or Complementarity:

- Not contradictory; both agree friendly people prefer friendly partners.
- **Similarity** weighs more in **initial attraction**.
- **Complementarity** assumes importance as the **relationship develops**.

3.3 Explaining Interpersonal Attraction 3.3.1 Social Exchange Theory:

- Feelings toward a partner depend on **perceived rewards and costs**, what they deserve, and likelihood of better alternatives.
    - **Rewards**: Make relationship worthwhile.
    - **Costs**: Cause irritation.
    - **Comparison Level (CL)**: Expectations of rewards/costs based on time invested. Outcomes above CL = satisfactory; below CL = dissatisfaction.
    - **Comparison of Alternatives**: Satisfaction conditional on finding a more desirable relationship.

3.3.2 Evolutionary Theories:

- Opposite-sex attraction for **fertility**: People invest in fertile partners to pass on genes. (Criticized for not explaining same-sex or child-free relationships).
- **Gender differences**: Women emphasize a man's ability to provide **resources and protection** for offspring raising.
- **Health cues**: Attraction to healthy physical features (e.g., facial symmetry, though perfectly symmetrical faces may be less attractive).
- **Self-replication**: Attraction to faces similar to one's own (desire to replicate features in next generation).
- **Love for child-rearing**: Love keeps couples together to successfully raise children, increasing offspring survival.

3.3.3 The Reciprocity-of-Liking Rule:

- **"We should like people who like us"**.
- **Reinforcement perspective**: Social approval/esteem is a powerful, generalized reinforcer. It's valuable because it indicates needs will be satisfied; lack indicates frustration.
- **Cognitive-consistency theories (Heider's balance theory)**: Predicts reciprocal liking; if A likes X (self) and B likes X (A), A will like B.

- **Observed correlation**: People tend to believe those they like reciprocate liking. This can be due to:
    - Liking another, then perceiving they like you.
    - Being attracted because of the discovery that the other person likes you (supports esteem as a reward).

3.3.4 Rewarding Reduces Anxiety, Stress, Loneliness, Enhancing Self-Esteem

- **Liking Produced By Rewards Others Provide**:
    - "We will like those who reward us, dislike those who punish us".
    - **Homans (1961)**: Esteem depends on the **rarity of services/rewards** one provides.
    - **Profit**: Reward received minus cost incurred. Esteem is a function of profit from interaction.
    - **Lott and Lott (1961)**: People like those who are merely **physically present when they receive rewards**.
        - Example: Children rewarded in a game chose group members (who were present) significantly more often for vacation than unrewarded children.
- **Anxiety**: When anxious, afraid, lonely, or unsure, the **sheer presence of others is rewarding**.
    - **Schachter (1959) electric shock experiment**: High-anxiety participants (63%) preferred to wait with others vs. low-anxiety (33%).
    - **"Misery loves miserable company"**: Anxious individuals prefer to associate with people in a **similar situation**.
    - **Reasons for seeking company when anxious**: Escape, cognitive clarity (understanding ambiguous situations), direct anxiety reduction (comfort/reassurance), indirect anxiety reduction (distraction), **self-evaluation** (evaluating reasonableness of own emotions).
- **Stress**: Presence of others can lead to **less severe physiological disturbance** during stress.
    - Bovard (1959) theory: Presence of same-species member inhibits stress response.
- **Social Isolation**: Complete social isolation for prolonged periods is **painful**.
    - Early 19th-century prison reforms with solitary confinement led to physical and mental illness in inmates.
    - Experiences of absolute social deprivation: Pain increases then decreases (onset of withdrawal), increased thinking/dreaming/hallucinating about people, less suffering if occupied.
    - Others provide reward by their sheer physical presence, staving off loneliness.
- **Self-Esteem**:
    - Clinicians: **High self-esteem** persons are more receptive to others' love. Positive relationship between self-esteem and liking/acceptance for others.
    - **Dittes (1959) hypothesis**: Approval is **especially rewarding to individuals low in self-esteem** because it satisfies a greater need. Acceptance leads to greater

attraction for low self-esteem individuals, while rejection decreases attraction more for them.
    - **Experimental support (Dittes)**: College freshmen believed they were highly accepted or rejected by a group. The extent to which they reciprocated liking was **more affected by acceptance/rejection when their self-esteem was low**.

Unit 4: Aggression and Violence

4.0 Introduction

- **Human Aggression**: Any behavior directed toward another individual with the **immediate intent to cause harm**. Perpetrator must believe behavior will harm target and target is motivated to avoid it.
- **Definition**: Delivery of an aversive stimulus from one person to another, with intent to harm and expectation of causing harm, when the other person is motivated to escape or avoid.
- **Not Aggression**: Accidental harm (not intended), incidental by-product of helpful actions (target not motivated to avoid, e.g., dental pain), or pain actively solicited (e.g., masochism).
- Aggression can be physical force, verbal abuse, damaging property, or social snub.
- **Developmental aspect**: Aggressive behavior is normal in early childhood (crying, tantrums), predominantly physical when verbal skills are low, then verbal aggression develops. Peaks around 18-24 months, decreases by five years. Later, teasing, bullying, fighting; in adolescence, more serious violence (gang fights, weapons).
- **Antisocial behavior**: Behavior disadvantaging people, violating norms (lying, stealing, truancy). Aggression is a specific form.
- Important component of mental health disorders (conduct disorder, oppositional-defiant, ADHD).

4.2 Nature and Types of Aggression

- **Types of aggression**: Multidimensional; different stimuli/processes create distinct forms.
- **4.2.1 Clinical Classification**:
    - **"Affective," "Reactive," "Defensive," "Impulsive," or "Hot-blooded" aggression**: Violent response to provocation (physical/verbal), relatively uncontrolled and emotionally charged.
    - **"Predatory," "Instrumental," "Proactive," or "Cold-blooded" aggression**: Controlled, purposeful, lacking emotion, used to achieve a desired goal (e.g., domination).
- **4.2.2 Instrumental versus Hostile Aggression (Feshbach, 1970)**:
    - **Instrumental Aggression**: Produces some **positive reward or advantage** for the aggressor, unrelated to victim's discomfort.
    - **Hostile Aggression**: Purpose is to **induce injury or pain** upon the victim; little or no advantage to aggressor.
    - Problem: Many aggressive episodes have components of both.

- **4.2.3 Proactive and Reactive Aggression**:
    - **Reactive Aggression**: Enacted in **response to provocation** (attack, insult); manifested in self-defensive and angry actions.
    - **Proactive Aggression**: Initiated **without apparent provocation** (e.g., bullying); not evoked by anger, but by motives to obtain goods, assert power, gain approval.
    - Equivalent to affective (reactive) and instrumental (proactive) aggression.
- **4.2.4 Positive versus Negative Aggression**:
    - **Positive Aggression**: Considered **healthy, productive behavior** if it promotes basic values (survival, happiness, autonomy, identity). Facilitates cooperative/competitive activities. Forms: self-protection, standing up, pushing for new possibilities.
    - **Negative Aggression**: Acts resulting in **personal injury or property destruction**. Attacking behavior harming others. Forceful action directed towards harming/injuring living beings. Unhealthy as it induces heightened emotions damaging to the individual.

4.3 The Measurement of Aggression

- **Rating Scales**: Completed by parents or teachers (e.g., Child Behavior Checklist).
- **Self-Report Measures**: Individuals fill out questionnaires (e.g., Buss-Durkee Hostility Inventory).
- **Observers**: Measure ward behavior in psychiatric patients (e.g., Overt Aggression Scale).
- **Subtype Scale**: Classify different types of aggression (e.g., Reactive-Proactive Aggression Questionnaire).
- **Justice System Measures**:
    - Official police, court, correctional agency files.
    - Self-report measures (e.g., Self-Reported Delinquency).
    - Psychopathy Checklist Revised (PCL-R).
- **Clinical Projective Tests**: Thematic Apperception Test (TAT).

4.4 Causes of Aggressive Behaviour 4.4.1 Neurophysiologic Perspectives: Aggression is a **biological response under brain control**. Emphasizes role of brain, hormones, neurotransmitters; states aggression is **innate, not learned**. **4.4.2 Biological Causes**: Internal stimuli predisposing to aggression. * **Brain Dysfunction**: Poor functioning of frontal/temporal regions in violent offenders. Reduced glucose metabolism in prefrontal region, 11% reduction in prefrontal gray matter in antisocial individuals. Prefrontal region normally controls emotional reactions from limbic structures (amygdala); poor function leads to impulsive aggression. * **Testosterone**: Higher levels in aggressive offenders. Female criminals more likely to commit crimes around menstrual phase (low progesterone). Anabolic steroids increase aggression. * **Serotonin**: Aggressors have **lower levels** of serotonin. Environment plays key role in regulating neurochemistry (e.g., social dominance, alcohol). Birth complications can lead to CNS damage, impairing brain function, predisposing aggression (especially with psychosocial risk factors). * **Nutrition Deficiency**: Linked to aggression. Examples: Male offspring of starved pregnant

women had higher rates of antisocial personality disorder. Iron and zinc deficiency linked to aggressive behavior/conduct disorder. Early malnutrition impacts brain growth/development, affecting cognitive functions. **4.4.3 Environment and Genes**: * **Twin and adoption studies**: Large shared (family) environmental effect, moderate non-shared (unique) environmental effect, modest genetic effect. * Genetically vulnerable children (antisocial birth parents) are more susceptible to unfavorable family conditions. Genetic element stronger for adult criminality. **4.4.4 Parental Rearing Style**: Five aspects strongly associated with long-term antisocial behavior: * Poor supervision. * Erratic, harsh discipline. * Parental disharmony. * Rejection of the child. * Low involvement in child's activities. **4.4.5 Parent-child Interaction Pattern**: Aggressive behavior influenced by parent behavior. Parents often ignore polite behavior and give in to yelling/tantrums. **4.4.6 Parental Influence on Children's Emotions and Attitudes**: * Disorganized attachment patterns in toddlers lead to conduct problems (response to frightening, unavailable, inconsistent parenting). * Aggressive children construe neutral overtures as hostile, have difficulty judging feelings, poor at generating constructive solutions, believe aggression is effective. Fragile self-esteem, confrontational view of world. **4.4.7 Difficulties with Friends and at School**: * Lack skills to participate without upsetting others. * Peer rejection, leading to association with other antisocial children. * Reading difficulties often lead to unemployment. **4.4.8 Predisposing Child Characteristics**: * **Hyperactivity (ADHD)**: Genetically determined; can lead to aggression over time (difficulty waiting turns, provoking retaliation). Coexistence with conduct disorder has poor long-term outlook. * **Lower IQ**: Delinquents have 8-10 points lower IQ than law-abiding peers. * **Other traits**: Irritability, explosiveness, lack of social awareness, social anxiety, reward-seeking behavior. **4.4.9 Environmental Stressors**: * **Temperature**: Higher temperatures linked to aggression, though extreme heat may decrease it (conflicting findings). * **Crowding**: Higher density leads to higher aggression. Unpleasant invasion of personal space. Not found in families where closeness is expected. Cultural differences exist. Leads to physiological arousal. * **Noise**: Unwanted sound that causes negative effect. Too loud or unpredictable noise causes aggression. * Example (Glass and Singer): Participants made more mistakes in a proof-reading task after being subjected to loud, random noise they couldn't control during a previous task.

4.5 Theories of Aggression

- **4.5.1 Psychodynamic Theory (Freud)**:
    - Humans possess **life instinct (Eros)** and **death instinct (Thanatos)**.
    - Conflict between them creates self-destructive tendencies leading to aggression.
    - Build-up of tension in unconscious needs to be released through **suitable outlets (sublimation, e.g., sport)** or **displacement onto others**.
    - Failure to relieve impulses leads to uncontrollable outbursts. Also known as **hydraulic model**.
- **4.5.2 Frustration-Aggression Theory**:
    - Behaviorist approach: Aggression is a **learned response to frustration**.
    - Frustration occurs from external situations causing discomfort/anger (e.g., queuing, overcrowding, failure).
    - Frustration is **cumulative** and discharged via aggressive act.

    - "Frustration always causes aggression, and Aggression is always caused by frustration".
- **4.5.3 Cognitive Neo-association Theory (Berkowitz, 1993)**:
    - Aversive events (frustrations, provocations) produce **negative affect**.
    - Negative affect automatically stimulates thoughts, memories, reactions, physiological responses linked to **fight and flight**.
    - Aggressive thoughts, emotions, behaviors are **linked in memory**.
    - When a concept is **primed**, activation spreads to related concepts.
    - Explains why aversive events increase aggressive inclinations via negative affect. Suited for hostile aggression, but applies to other types.
- **4.5.4 Social Learning Theory (Bandura, Mischel)**:
    - People acquire aggressive responses through **direct experience or observing others**.
    - Explains acquisition of aggressive behaviors via **observational learning**.
    - Concepts for understanding beliefs and expectations guiding social behavior.
- **4.5.5 Script Theory (Huesmann, 1998)**:
    - Children observing violence in mass media learn **aggressive scripts**.
    - Scripts define situations and guide behavior; once learned, they can be retrieved as guides.
    - Scripts are well-rehearsed, highly associated concepts in memory (causal links, goals, action plans). Rehearsals can change expectations and intentions.
- **4.5.6 Excitation Transfer Theory**:
    - Arousal from a first event can be **misattributed** to a second event if separated by a short time.
    - If second event is related to anger, additional arousal makes the person angrier.
- **4.5.7 Social Interaction Theory (Tedeschi & Felson, 1994)**:
    - Aggressive behavior is **social influence behavior**; actor uses coercive actions to change target's behavior.
    - Coercive actions used to obtain value (info, money, sex), exact retributive justice, or bring about desired social/self identities (e.g., toughness).
    - Helps understand aggression from threats to high self-esteem (narcissism).
- **4.5.8 Social Information Processing (SIP) Theories (Crick & Dodge, 1994)**:
    - Individuals in social situations:
        1. **Perceive and encode** situational/social cues.
        2. **Form mental representation** and interpretation.
        3. **Select goal** or desired outcome.
        4. **Recall/construct possible reactions**.
        5. **Evaluate reactions**.
        6. **Initiate adequate action**.
    - Aggressive individuals: Focus more on aggression-relevant stimuli, overperceive aggression in others, attribute hostile intentions.
    - More egocentric/antisocial goals (maximize utility, dominate interaction).
    - Generate more aggressive/hostile alternatives; repertoire lacks variety.

    - Short-term estimation of consequences, expect more self-efficacy/positive consequences from aggression.
    - Content of SIP attributed mainly to **learning in social contexts** (family aggression, abuse, inappropriate parenting, media, peer groups).
- **4.5.9 General Aggression Model (GAM) (Anderson and Bushman, 2002)**:
    - Integrates existing theories.
    - Based on **knowledge structures** (perceptual schemata, person schemata, behavioral scripts) which guide responses to environment.
    - Focuses on **person/situation characteristics** relating to present **internal state** (affect, arousal, cognition), leading to appraisal and decision-making processes.
    - Leads to impulsive or thoughtful actions, cycling back to next social encounter.

4.6 Intervention to Reduce Aggression

- Target **modifiable risk factors** early, as conduct disorder is reliably detected early, continuous, and hard to eradicate in older children.
- **4.6.1 Parent Training Programmes for Reducing Antisocial Behaviour in Children**:
    - **Most effective**: Behaviorally based programs to help parents.
    - Patterson's work: Directly instructing parents during interaction leads to significant, lasting reduction in problems.
- **4.6.2 Developing a Programme**:
    - Multi-disciplinary (2-3 disciplines).
    - Professionals need specific methods training (manual, training center).
    - At least **10 sessions**, boosters desirable.
    - **Early intervention** is crucial; teenage treatments have small effects.
- **4.6.3 Training Using Videotapes**: Cost-effective approach for larger numbers.
    - Videos show "right" and "wrong" ways to handle children.
    - Groups of 10-14 parents, weekly 2-hour sessions for 12 weeks, led by two therapists promoting discussion and role play.
    - Practical homework set and reviewed.
- **4.6.4 Other Training Programmes**: More intensive programs (e.g., Puckering et al., one day a week for 16 weeks).
- **4.6.5 Failure of Parent Training**: Often due to **parental psychiatric difficulties** (depression, drug/alcohol problems, personality difficulties).
- **4.6.6 Management of Hyperactivity**: Distinct from conduct disorder, but often coexists.
    - Psychological treatment: Rewards given more contingently/frequently, tasks broken into shorter components, specific/clear rules set (difficulty generalizing).
    - School environment is challenging (concentration demands, distractions, less supervision).
    - **Drug management**: Reserved for severe symptoms (methylphenidate/dexamphetamine) for hyperkinetic syndrome (over 1% of boys); large short-term effects, long-term benefits less known.
- **4.6.7 Interventions at Schools**: **Early preventive educational programs** can reduce later aggressive behavior.

Block 3

Block 3: Attitudes, Stereotypes, Prejudice, Discrimination, and Social Conflict

Unit 1: Introduction to Attitude and Stereotypes

1.2 Nature of Attitudes

- **Definition**: A **learned predisposition** to respond consistently favorably or unfavorably toward a given object.
- Initially defined as one-dimensional (intensity of feelings).
- Later explained in terms of **components** (ABC of attitude):
    - **Affective component**: How strongly a person feels (for or against) an event/object.
    - **Behavioral component**: Actions a person would take (in favor or against).
        - *Example*: A person favoring widow remarriage might organize meetings or remarry a widow.
    - **Cognitive component**: A person's opinions and beliefs toward an object/event.
        - *Example*: Beliefs about widow remarriage.
- **Characteristics of Attitude Components**:
    - **Valence**: Degree of favorableness or unfavorableness.
    - **Multiplexity**: Number of elements a component has; higher number means more complex.
    - **Consistency**: More found among valence factors than multiplexity.

1.2.1 Characteristics of Attitudes

- **Learned**: Acquired through socialization and life experiences, not innate.
- **Gives direction**: Directs behavior toward or away from an object.
    - *Example*: Favorable attitude toward education leads to sending children to school.
- **Relative permanency**: Stable over time, changes gradually.
- **Always related to an issue, object, or thing**: Needs a specific focus; doesn't exist in a vacuum.
- **Motivational properties**: Motivates specific behaviors more readily.
    - *Example*: Positive attitude for sports makes a person readily go for play.

1.2.2 Attitude and Beliefs

- **Belief Definition**: An enduring organization of perceptions and cognitions about an aspect of an individual's world; cognitions/thoughts about object characteristics.
- **Similarities**:
    - Both are enduring organizations of components.
    - Both have a cognitive component.

- **Differences**:
    - **Attitude has all three components** (cognitive, affective, behavioral); belief primarily has cognitive, with behavioral being secondary.
        - *Example*: Thinking reservation is unjust (cognitive) vs. delivering a lecture about it (behavioral).
    - **Attitude has motivational properties and directs efforts**; belief does not.
    - **Belief is part of attitude**: All attitudes have relevant beliefs.
    - **Beliefs are based on real facts**; attitude is more on imagination and less on reality.
    - **Change in attitude is faster than in beliefs**.

1.3 Theories of Attitude Organisation

- **Categories**: Cognitive consistency, Social learning, Functional, Miscellaneous.

1.3.1 Heider's Balance Theory (P-O-X model)

- **Elements**: **P** (perceiver), **O** (another person), **X** (object of perception).
- **Relationships**:
    - **Unit relations**: Based on similarity, ownership, membership (positive or negative).
    - **Affective relations**: Based on liking/disliking (positive or negative).
- **Balance vs. Imbalance**:
    - **Balance**: Individual feels relaxed, no tension.
    - **Imbalance**: Creates tension, motivates individual to restore balance.
        - *Example*: Sunil (P) likes Krishan (X) and Preeti (O), but Krishan dislikes Preeti. This is disturbing for Sunil, who must change his liking for Krishan or Preeti to restore balance.

1.3.2 Katz's Functional Theory

- Motivational basis is key; attitude serves functions for the person.
- **Four Functions**:
    1. **Instrumental, adjustive or utilitarian function**: Maximize rewards, minimize punishment. Favorable attitude toward rewarding objects, unfavorable toward punishing ones.
    2. **Ego-defensive function**: Protects a person from unpleasant realities about self/environment.
        - *Example*: Insecure person develops prejudice against minority to compensate.
    3. **Value-expressive function**: Holding attitudes consistent with personal values/self-concept provides satisfaction.
    4. **Knowledge function**: Basic drive to understand/structure experience. Inconsistent elements are rearranged for consistency.

1.3.3 Kelman's Three Process Theory

- Attitude organization influenced by three social influence processes:
    1. **Compliance**: Accepting influence to achieve a favorable reaction or avoid punishment from another person/group, even if privately disagreeing.
        - *Example*: Employee laughing at boss's unfunny jokes to avoid displeasure.
    2. **Identification**: Adopting behavior from another person/group because it's associated with a satisfying self-defining relationship to them. Means of establishing/maintaining a desirable relation and supporting self-definition.
        - *Example*: Children copying parents' behavior and attitudes.
    3. **Internalisation**: Accepting influence because the induced behavior is **congruent with one's value system** and internally rewarding. The attitude/behavior helps solve a problem or is demanded by individual values.

1.4 Stereotypes

- **Definition**: A **cluster of beliefs**, usually lacking a rational basis, regarding members of some group. A belief about a particular trait being prevalent among all members of a social group, assuming all members possess it.
- **Key Conclusions**:
    - Set of beliefs used to categorize people.
    - Exaggerated and lacks truth.
    - Provides basis for gross generalization.
    - Identifies people by physical, social, cultural characteristics.
    - General consensus on prevalence of traits in a category.
    - Assumed a person exhibits all traits of a category simply by being a member.

1.4.1 Characteristics of Stereotypes

- **Mental picture/image**: Ascribe traits based on it.
- **Widely agreed belief**: Shared by many.
    - *Example*: Politicians are opportunist.
- **Gross and exaggerated generalizations**: Develop from experience with individuals, then applied to all.
    - *Example*: Bengalees are timid (true for some, not all).
- **Not amenable to change**: Resistant to contrary information/evidence.
    - *Example*: A brave Bengali is seen as an "exception".
- **Positive or negative**: Can have either direction.
    - *Example*: Japanese are industrious (positive); Bengalees are timid (negative).

1.4.2 Development and Maintenance of Stereotypes

- **Acquired**, not innate. Factors:
    - **Inadequate/Improper experience and information**: Generalizing from a few individuals to the whole group.
    - **Socialization**: Parents and significant others transmit stereotypes.

- **Imitation**: Adopting beliefs of the community to become an acceptable member, without questioning validity.
- **Traditions and folkways**: Prevalent cultural norms foster stereotypes.
- **Social and cultural distance**: Prevents gaining correct knowledge about other groups, creating a breeding ground for stereotypes.

1.4.3 Stereotype and Social Life

- Directly affect social interaction and expectations.
- **Social Functions**:
  1. **Help understand social behavior**: Aids in interpreting others' actions.
     - *Example*: Stereotype that politicians are opportunist helps understand their statements.
  2. **Help control social behavior**: Directs one's own behavior.
     - *Example*: Americans are friendly, so we are relaxed and frank with them.
  3. **Help in prediction**: Used to predict behavior, even if wrong.
     - *Example*: Predicting Nepali servants will be brave, honest, and reliable.

1.4.4 Difference between Stereotype and Prejudice

- **Stereotype**: All members of a community treated alike based on assumed characteristics; primarily **cognitions/expectations**.
- **Prejudice**: Can be positive or negative; a **type of attitude** and thus has **all three components** (affective, cognitive, and behavioral).
- **Stability**: Stereotypes are comparatively more stable than prejudices.

Unit 2: Formation of Attitude and Attitude Change

2.2 Factors of Attitude Formation

- **Need Satisfaction**: Favorable attitudes towards things that help satisfy needs, negative towards hindrances.
- **Social Learning**: Attitudes learned like other behaviors.
  - **Classical Conditioning**: Neutral stimulus elicits a response after repeated pairing with an unconditioned stimulus.
    - *Example*: Child develops negative attitude towards Pakistan after repeatedly hearing father call it an "enemy country".
    - *Experiment*: Nation words "Dutch" (paired with positive adjectives) and "Swedish" (paired with negative adjectives) resulted in corresponding positive/negative attitudes.
  - **Instrumental Conditioning**: Learn rewarded responses, avoid punished ones. Children adopt parents' attitudes because holding them is rewarding (praise), deviation leads to punishment.

    - **Observational Learning**: Learning by watching others' activities and outcomes, especially parents and significant others, due to trust in their wisdom.
- **Group Affiliations**: Adopting values/norms of a group to gain acceptance; groups exert pressure for conformity.
    - **Primary Group** (family, peer group): Close cooperation, affinity, compassion lead to similar attitudes. Attitudinal homogeneity due to: pressure for conformity, liking breeds similarity, similar information processing, new members adopting group attitudes for acceptance.
    - **Reference Group**: A group an individual aspires to be like, used as a standard for comparison. Individuals identify by adopting similar values, norms, goals.
- **Cultural Factors**: Society's culture, traditions, norms, values, religion affect socialization and attitude development.
    - *Example*: Cousin marriage viewed favorably in Muslim culture, with disdain in Hindu.
    - *Study*: Arapesh tribe (liberal, cooperative) vs. Mundugumor tribe (aggressive, selfish) due to cultural emphasis on personality traits.
- **Personality Factor**: Attitudes consonant with personality traits are acquired easily.
    - *Example*: Low IQ/literacy level linked to conservatism, suspicion, hostility.
- **Stereotypes**: Prevalent generalized expectations influence attitude development.
    - *Example*: Belief that women are more religious affects attitudes towards them.
- **Given Information**: Modern communication (radio, TV, newspapers) shape opinions/attitudes.

2.3 Attitude Change

- Attitudes are relatively permanent but **change gradually over time**.
- **Types of Change**:
    - **Congruent change**: Favorable attitude becomes more favorable.
    - **Incongruent change**: Attitude changes to be unfavorable or opposite to previous direction.
- **Ease of Change**:
    - Congruent change is easier than incongruent change.
    - Higher strength, stability, and consonance among current attitude elements make congruent change easier.

Factors Affecting Attitude Change

- **Changing Reference Group**: Shifting from one reference group to another can change attitudes.
    1. *Example*: Newcomb's (1950) study showed girls shifting from conservative to liberal attitudes in college.
- **Changing Group Affiliations**: Breaking ties with an old group and joining a new one leads to adopting new group's norms, values, and beliefs. Depends on:
    1. **Characteristics of the group**: More attractive norms/values lead to readiness to change.

2. **Characteristics of membership**: Greater status, power, prestige in the new group increases likelihood of attitude change.
    - *Example*: A leader changing political parties for higher status.

- **Additional Information**: Information from media (Radio, TV, Newspaper) or social interaction can change attitudes. Effect depends on social situation:
    1. Faster/greater change when information is given in front of several people rather than alone.
    2. **Public commitment** to attitudes makes them more rigid; private commitment allows more change with additional information.
    3. **Discussion method** is more successful than lecture method for attitude change.
        - *Classical Experiment*: Housewives who discussed and agreed on beef consumption showed 30% attitude shift, vs. 3% for those lectured by an expert.
- **Persuasive Communication**: Communication of attractive and appealing facts/information directly bearing on attitudes. Depends on four factors:
    1. **Source of communication**:
        - **Credibility of the communicator**: More trustworthy and expert sources bring greater attitude change.
            - **Sleeper effect**: Over time, source relevance diminishes, and only message content is retained.
        - **Attractiveness of the communicator**: Physical beauty and similarity increase impact.
            - *Example*: Beautiful heroine advertising shampoo; Black communicator more effective for Black students.
    2. **Characteristics and content of communication**:
        - **Fear arousing appeal**: Effective if it arouses fear but also provides alternatives to reduce that fear.
            - *Example*: Statutory warnings on cigarette packets.
        - **Organisation of Communication**:
            - **One-sided vs. Two-sided communication**: Presenting only arguments for change vs. presenting arguments with counter-arguments.
                - One-sided more effective for less educated audiences; two-sided for graduate audiences.
                - Initial stance of audience matters.
                - **Inoculating effect**: Two-sided communication is dramatically effective in "inoculating" people against later counter-propaganda.
            - **Drawing conclusions**: Message can draw its own conclusion or leave it to the audience.
            - **Primacy versus Recency effect**: Whether information presented first (primacy) or last (recency) is more effective.
    3. **Channel of communication**:

        - **Personal contact** is more effective than mass media (radio, television, newspaper) in producing attitude change.
        - **Active participation** is more effective than receiving information through pamphlets/posters.
    4. **Characteristics of audience**:
        - High self-esteem, self-confidence, aggressive individuals are less likely to be affected.
        - Increased age brings rigidity and conservatism, making older people less likely to be affected.
- **Enforced Contact**: Compelling opposing parties to interact allows better understanding, first-hand information, and testing of previous information, reducing prejudice.

Unit 3: Prejudice and Discrimination

3.2 Characteristics of Prejudice

- **Definition**: An **attitude** that predisposes a person to think, perceive, feel, and act favorably or unfavorably towards a group or its members. Generally, a **negative attitude**. It is an attitude with all three components: affective, cognitive, and behavioral.
- **Acquired**: Learned through socialization (imitation of parents, societal norms/values). Facilitated by classical, instrumental, and observational learning.
- **Emotional overtones**: Always colored with emotions (affection/love/sympathy if favorable; hatred/dislike/hostility if unfavorable).
- **Irrational**: Does not lend itself to reason; resistant to change even with contrary information/evidence.
- **Functional**: Helps justify hostilities, repressed desires, and strengthens self-esteem/prestige. Helps justify exploitation and discrimination.
    - *Example*: Upper-caste Hindus justifying exploitation of lower castes.
- **No connection with reality**: Based on hearsay, incomplete/wrong information, customs/traditions; cannot stand test of logic.

3.3 Types of Prejudice

- **Racial prejudice**: Against members of another race.
    - *Example*: Negros by whites, Jews by Nazis.
- **Sex prejudice**: Against women, historically considered weak, dependent, less intellectual.
- **Caste prejudice**: Prevalent in Indian society, dividing people into castes with specific characteristics.
- **Language prejudice**: Despising a language.
    - *Example*: People in South India despising Hindi despite it being the national language.

- **Religious prejudice**: Positive attitude towards one's own religion, unfavorable towards others, leading to misunderstandings.
    - *Example*: Creation of Pakistan due to religious differences.
- Other types: Political prejudice, communal prejudice.

3.4 Discrimination

- **Definition**: The **differential treatment** of individuals belonging to a particular social group, community, or religion. It is generally the **overt or behavioral expression of prejudice**.
- Involves denying privileges or rights accorded to others.
- Can occur without accompanying prejudice if it benefits business.
    - *Example*: Proprietor refusing minority patrons to protect business, even if not prejudiced.

3.5 Development and Maintenance of Prejudice and Discrimination

- **Causal and Maintenance Factors**:
    - **Status and Power structures**: Dominant groups consider subordinate groups as lacking initiative because their behavior is controlled by the structure.
        - *Example*: Slaves seen as lazy due to their role.
    - **Historical facts**: Economic conflict and political power distribution lead to prejudice.
        - *Example*: Prejudice against women (weak, dependent); against Jews (rich, shrewd) due to their historical occupational roles.
    - **Situational Factors**:
        - **Social learning**: Beliefs, values, attitudes transmitted through parents, school, religion, child-rearing practices.
        - **Job Competition**: Scarcity of jobs leads to prejudice against groups perceived as taking opportunities.
            - *Example*: Marathi movement against North Indians in Mumbai due to job competition.
        - **Conformity to Norms**: Once prejudice is established, it becomes a group norm; overt expression receives approval.
        - **Interaction Patterns**: Reinforce cohesion within ingroup and increase cultural gulf between groups, maintaining status quo.
    - **Psychodynamic factors**:
        - **Frustration and Aggression**: Displaced aggression theory – frustration against a stronger obstacle is displaced onto a weaker object/group, making them a **scapegoat**.
        - **Authoritarian Personality**: Rigid thinking, punitive tendencies, valuing people by power scale. Attributes good characteristics to those above, treats those below as inferior and deserving exploitation/hatred.
        - **Personality needs**:

        - **Intolerance for ambiguity**: People disturbed by confusing situations are more prejudiced as it clarifies uncertainty.
        - Need to achieve superior status (prejudice provides lower-status group).
        - Need for security (rejection of outgroup).

3.6 Manifestation of Prejudice

- Prejudice (an attitude) is observable through behavior:
    - **Withdrawal**: Moving away from the object of prejudice.
        - *Example*: Leaving a party where disliked individuals are present.
    - **Avoidance**: Keeping away from social situations where the object of prejudice may be present.
        - *Example*: Deciding not to join a party known to have disliked individuals.
    - **Discrimination**: Biased behavior against the object person/group.
        - *Example*: Teacher failing students from a particular community without merit.
    - **Lynching**: Causing physical hurt or injury.
        - *Example*: Teacher subjecting students to physical punishment without reason.
    - **Extermination**: Extreme form, aimed at removing the existence of the object person/group.
        - *Example*: Hitler's mass extermination of Jews during WWII.

3.7 Methods of Reducing Prejudice and Discrimination

- **Intergroup Contact**: Allows parties to know and understand each other, reducing misunderstandings. Effective under specific conditions:
    - Both parties have **equal status**.
    - Contact is **intimate and not superficial**.
    - Success is **dependent on each other** (common goal).
- **Education**: Promotes harmony.
    - **Informal**: Parents encouraged not to promote prejudice before children.
    - **Formal**: Syllabus/curriculum designed to promote harmony, leading to decreased prejudice and increased liberalism.
    - **Cultural assimilator**: Explaining traditions, norms, beliefs of other communities/races to reduce prejudice.
- **Antiprejudice Propaganda**: Through mass media (films, documentaries), can be very successful.
- **Incongruent Role**: Making a person play a role contrary to their prejudice creates cognitive dissonance, compelling them to change their prejudice.
    - *Example*: A prejudiced person entrusted with welfare of the disliked community.
- **Social Legislation**: Government laws prohibiting public expression of prejudice and promoting equality.

    - *Example*: Indian constitution prohibiting discrimination based on caste, creed, sex, religion; encouraging inter-caste marriages, reservations for deprived communities.
- **Personality Change Techniques**: For cases where prejudice is integral to personality, therapeutic treatment.
    - *Example*: Play therapy for detecting early prejudice and reforming children's personality.

Unit 4: Social Conflict and Its Resolution

4.2 Nature of Social Conflict

- **Definition**: Occurs when two or more actors oppose each other in social interaction, exerting power to attain scarce/incompatible goals and prevent opponents from attaining them. Action oriented intentionally to carry out one's will against resistance.
- **Key Conclusions**:
    - **Revolves around social power**: Struggle for power is central; powerful group wins.
        - *Example*: Meenas thwarting Gurjar movement for scheduled tribe status due to their political/bureaucratic/economic clout.
    - **Involves incompatibility**: Some get what they want, others don't, leading to discontent.
        - *Example*: Maltreatment of Harijan community for centuries.
    - **Individuals try to maximize gain at others' expense**: Leads to struggle.
    - **Cooperation intertwined with competition**: Pure conflict is rare; elements of cooperation often exist.

4.3 Forms of Social Conflict

- **Overt Conflict**: Open, explicit, fierce, direct competition.
    - *Example*: Negotiation between management/labor, war between countries, a debate.
- **Objective Conflict**: A social situation that inherently benefits some while causing loss to others.
    - *Example*: Reservation in jobs benefiting dominant castes within OBC, leading to other castes demanding separate quotas (Gurjar movement).
- **Subjective Conflict**: When an individual identifies or perceives a situation as involving struggle, even if not overt.

4.4 Methods of Conflict Resolution

- **Mutually Beneficial Goal**: Establishing common goals prompts cooperation and reduces animosity.

    - *Classical Experiment (Sherif & Sherif)*: Groups in competition developed animosity; later, common goal requiring joint effort led to better understanding and reduced conflict.
- **Compromise**: Reaching a situation where no party significantly gains or loses, leading to gradual reduction of struggle.
    - *Example*: Gurjars dropped demand for Scheduled Tribe inclusion but asked for separate quota, Meenas supported; both gained without loss.
- **Developing Special Norms**: Establishing rules (e.g., umpire decides first turn) to remove points of contention, applicable when both parties can influence each other.
- **Prosocial Behavior**: Actions that create positive social influence (e.g., charity, helping others) reduce conflict feelings.
    - **Stages of Prosocial Behavior**: Assess seriousness, take responsibility, desire to help, recognize capability.
- **Scientific Approaches for Reduction**:
    - **Win-Lose approach**: One party aims to defeat the opponent and ensure own victory, assumes conflict is inevitable and only one winner.
    - **Lose-Lose approach**: None of the parties gain much, characterized by reconciliation after initial struggle, quick solutions, but disregards individual values.
    - **Win-Win approach**: Ideal for reduction, both parties cooperate to find a mutually beneficial solution, considers conflict a mutual problem, emphasizes difficulties of both parties. Requires human relations skills.

4.5 Blake and Mouton Strategies

- Five strategies for conflict reduction:
    - **Withdrawing**: Stepping back from the struggle (lose-lose).
    - **Smoothing**: Emphasizing common interests, avoiding controversial matters (lose-lose).
    - **Compromising**: Decreasing differences through discussion (lose-lose).
    - **Forcing**: Competitive, "all or none" approach (win-lose).
    - **Confrontation and problem solving**: Open discussion, mutually acceptable solution (win-win).

4.6 Two Dimensional Model

- Conflict handling behavior understood by two dimensions: **Assertiveness** and **Cooperation**.

- **Five Modes**:

    1. **Competing**: **Assertive and uncooperative**. Pursues own concerns at other's expense (power-oriented, "standing up for rights").
    2. **Accommodating**: **Unassertive and cooperative**. Neglects own concerns to satisfy others' (self-sacrifice, yielding).

3. **Avoiding**: **Unassertive and uncooperative**. Neither pursues own nor other's concerns, avoids dealing with conflict (sidestepping, postponing, withdrawing).
4. **Collaborating**: **Assertive and cooperative**. Works with others for a solution that fully satisfies concerns, digs into underlying needs (exploring disagreement, creative solutions).
5. **Compromising**: **Moderate in both assertiveness and cooperativeness**. Finds expedient, mutually acceptable solution that partially satisfies both (splitting difference, exchanging concessions, quick middle-ground).

- Individuals can use all modes but tend to rely on certain ones more.

- **Third party intervention**: Seeking mediation of an arbitrator whose binding solution is arrived at through open discussion and negotiation. Requires a mature third party.

4.7 Group Conflict in Indian Society

- **Tribal problems**: Minority tribes emphasize independent existence, fear assimilation jeopardizing identity.
    - *Example*: Formation of Jharkhand state.
- **Caste conflict**: Indian society divided into forward, backward, scheduled castes/tribes, competing to outsmart each other.
- **Communal problems**: Between Hindus and Muslims, leading to riots and loss of life/property.
    - *Example*: Demolition of Babri Masjid.
- **Other social conflict problems**: Labour-management, student, landlord-tenant, confrontation between advantaged/disadvantaged, language problems, job problems.

Block 4

Block 4: Advance Social Psychology - Key Concepts

This block focuses on the definition, formation, types, and dynamics of groups, including how individuals interact within and between them, leading to concepts like social identity, cooperation, competition, and conflict.

UNIT 1: Introduction to Group, Formation and Types of Group

This unit defines groups, describes their formation and various types, and explains their structure.

1.2 Definition and Meaning of Group

- **General Meaning**: Two or more persons who **come together and interact at one place** may be called a group.
- **Various Definitions Emphasizing Key Features**:
    - **R.M. Williams (1951)**: A social group is an **aggregate of people playing inter-related roles** and recognized as a **unit of interaction**.
    - **R.M. MacIver (1953)**: Any collection of social beings who enter into **distinctive social relationships** with one another.
    - **David (1968)**: An **organized system of two or more individuals** who are interrelated, perform functions, have role relationships, and a set of norms.
    - **Kretch, Crutchfield and Ballachy (1962)**: Two or more persons whose **relations are interdependent** (each influences others' behavior) and who **share an ideology** (beliefs, values, norms regulating conduct).
    - **Paulus (1989)**: Two or more interacting persons who **share common goals**, have a **stable relationship**, are **interdependent**, and **perceive they are part of a group**.
- **General Usage of "Group" (Three Main Points)**:
    - Where a **number of persons are sitting or working together** (physical proximity, with or without common purpose).
    - Where persons are **classified as belonging to an association** (common characteristics, even without direct relationship).
    - Where persons **belong to an organisation** (definite structure).
- **Psychological Definition**: The study of **organizations and their behavior**, exploring the **control of the individual within the group setting**.
- **Reasons People Join Groups**:
    - Satisfaction of **important psychological and social needs** (e.g., affection, attention, belongingness).
    - **Achievement of goals** more easily by working with others.
    - Getting **knowledge and information** not available elsewhere.

    - Gaining **safety and security**.

1.3 Important Features of Group

Groups are characterized by:

- Individuals **influencing each other**.
- **Social interactions and relationships** among members.
- **Common motives, drives, interests, emotions**.
- **Communication** (verbal and/or non-verbal) among members.
- **Common object of attention** and mutual stimulation.
- **Common loyalty** and participation in similar activities.
- **Feeling of unity**, respect, regard, and camaraderie.
- **Action of members controlled by the group**.
- Existence of **customs, norms, and procedures**, with ostracism for exceptions.

1.4 Characteristics of a Group

Significant features or characteristics of a group include:

- **A sense of we-feeling**: Belongingness, mutual help, collective work against harmful powers, striving for self-sufficiency.
- **Common interest**: Similarity among members promoting unity, treating related persons as one.
- **A feeling of unity**: Members treating each other as their own, developing camaraderie.
- **Related to each other**: Members are inter-related, with reciprocal communication; social relations are fundamental.
- **Affected by group characteristics**: Every group has social characteristics that differentiate it and affect its members.
- **Common values**: Shared values, traditionally respected and communicated, bind members through mutual behaviors.
- **Control of group**: Customs, norms, and procedures accepted by all; without norms, group existence is impossible. Actions of members are controlled by the group.
- **Obligation**: Members have complementary obligations to each other, strengthening relationships through mutual obligation and common values.
- **Expectations**: Members expect love, compassion, empathy, and cooperation from others. Fulfillment of mutual expectations maintains the group.
- **Example: Family as a Social Group**: Members interact, have reciprocal relationships, a "we feeling," common ideals/values, and work together for family interests with mutual cooperation.
- **Example: School as a Social Group**: Children and teachers have a common goal, school has an organized structure, and offers opportunities for groups to realize needs.

1.5 Group Formation and Related Theories

Group formation involves the manner in which groups form, their structures and processes, and their functions in different situations.

1.5.1 Theories of Group Formation

- **Classic Theory (George Homans)**: Groups develop based on **activities, interactions, and sentiments**. Shared activities lead to more interaction and development of attitudes (positive/negative). **Interaction is the main element**.
- **Social Exchange Theory**: Individuals form relationships based on the **implicit expectation of mutually beneficial exchanges** (trust, felt obligation). A perception of positive exchange relationships attracts people to affiliate with a group.
- **Social Identity Theory**: Individuals gain a sense of **identity and self-esteem from membership in salient groups**. The group's basis can be demographic, cultural, or organizational. (Further details in Unit 3)

Group Decision-Making:

- Groups often reach **better decisions than individuals** by utilizing members' expertise and avoiding extreme actions.
- **Two Phases of Social Decision-Making**:
    1. **Discussion**: Confirms or strengthens the most popular view.
    2. **Correct situation or decision**: Ultimately emerges.
- Influential members can sway decisions.

1.5.2 Ten (10) Rules that Govern Groups These rules explain dynamics of group psychology:

1. **Groups can arise from almost nothing**: The desire to form/join groups is powerful; groups provide **social identity**. Demonstrated by Tajfel et al.'s (1971) **'minimal groups paradigm,'** where slight group division led to in-group favoritism.
2. **Initiation rites improve group evaluations**: Existing groups often have a cost to join (monetary, intellectual, physical, or disguised initiation). Aronson and Mills (1959) showed humiliating initiation rites led to more positive group ratings, increasing the value of membership.
3. **Groups breed conformity**: Group norms are powerful and can bend behaviors. Asch's (1951) experiment showed 76% of participants conforming to group judgment, even when it contradicted their own senses, often rationalizing that "that many people cannot be wrong".
4. **Learn the ropes or be ostracised**: Breaking group norms leads to immediate consequences (e.g., Garfinkel, 1967, showing parents reacting negatively to children behaving out of character).
5. **You become your job**: People adopt roles within groups with corresponding rules. The **Stanford Prison Experiment (Zimbardo, 1972)** famously demonstrated the power of roles, where participants quickly adopted guard/prisoner behaviors, leading to emotional disturbances and early suspension of the experiment.

6. **Leaders gain trust by conforming**: Leaders often emerge by initially fitting in with the group before gradually suggesting new ideas (Merei, 1949). Trust must be gained before leadership is accepted.
7. **Groups can improve performance**: The **mere presence of others can facilitate performance** (e.g., Norman Triplett's 1898 observation of cyclists performing better with a pacemaker), especially for tasks judged on their own merits.
8. **People will loaf**: In situations where individual contribution is hard to judge (e.g., additive tasks), people in groups may exert less effort (**social loafing**), as observed in tug-of-war experiments.
9. **The grapevine is 80% accurate**: Informal communication (rumor, gossip) travels fast. Simmons (1985) found that in workplaces, about 80% of informal communication was about work, and a surprising 80% of that information was accurate.
10. **Groups breed competition**: While cooperation is common *within* groups, co-operation *between* groups can be problematic, leading to **adversarial "them-and-us" situations** even among individually cooperative people.

1.6 Types of Group

Groups can be classified in various ways:

- **Based on Degree of Intimacy**:
    - **Primary Group**: **Intimate face-to-face relationship** among members, maximum "**we feeling**" (e.g., family, play groups, village community).
    - **Secondary Group**: Relationships are **more or less casual** and marked by **common interest** (e.g., clubs, trade unions).
- **Based on Identification**:
    - **In-group/we group**: Members identify with the group, sharing a **common object and interest**, a sense of "we." They treat others as **outsiders**. Can be based on relationship, country, political, or economic interests.
    - **Out-group**: The group whose members are considered **outsiders** by the in-group.
- **Based on Norms and Rules**:
    - **Formal Group**: Formed on the basis of **specific norms, rules, and values** (e.g., students in a classroom, school).
    - **Informal Group**: Not formally formed, with **flexible rules** (e.g., play groups, peer groups, social clubs).
- **Other Categories**:
    - **Organised Groups**: Formed for a **specific purpose** and carefully planned (e.g., family, school).
    - **Spontaneous Groups**: Formed **without careful planning** (e.g., an audience at a speech).
    - **Command Groups**: Specified by the **organizational chart**, consisting of a supervisor and their subordinates.
    - **Task Groups**: People working together to **achieve a common task**, often with a **specified time period** (e.g., task forces).

    - **Functional Groups**: Created by the organization to accomplish **specific goals within an unspecified time frame**, existing after current goals are met.
    - **Interest Groups**: Continue over time, bound by **some common interest**, even if members are from different departments.
    - **Friendship Groups**: Formed by members who enjoy **similar social activities, political beliefs, religious values**, and other common bonds.
    - **Reference Groups**: Groups where people **evaluate themselves**, having a strong influence on members' behavior.
    - **Temporary Group**: Come together for a certain purpose and **disband after the task is over**. Unique sequencing includes: setting direction in the first meeting, a phase of inertia, a transition at the halfway point, a second phase of inertia, and accelerated activity in the last meeting.
- **Specific Group Types**:
    - **Clique**: Informal, tight-knit group, often in school settings, sharing common interests with a shifty power structure.
    - **Club**: Requires application for membership, dedicated to particular activities (e.g., sports clubs).
    - **Community**: Group of people with commonality, often in proximity, with continuity over time, often having organization and leaders.
    - **Franchise**: Organization running several instances of a business in multiple locations.
    - **Gang**: Usually an urban group that gathers in a particular area, less formal than clubs.
    - **Group**: A basic term for a number of people who associate with each other.
    - **Mob**: A temporary group that gathers for a particular reason, often taking the law into their own hands.
    - **Posse**: Initially an American term for citizens enforcing the law, can also refer to a street group.
    - **Squad**: A small group (3-8 people) working as a team to accomplish a goal.
    - **Team**: Similar to a squad but may contain more members.

1.7 Group Structure

Group structure refers to the **pattern of interrelationship** among group members that makes the group's functioning orderly. Key aspects include:

- **Role**: The **typical part played by an individual** group member in accordance with the expectations of other members.
- **Norms**: The **rules and mutual expectations** that develop within the group, profoundly affecting members' behavior by ensuring conformity.
- **Status**: The **relative prestige or social position** given to individuals or groups.
- **Group cohesiveness**: The **degree of attraction** of group members for each other and the "**we feeling**" among them.
- **Importance**: Without proper structure, a group cannot function properly.

UNIT 2: Group Dynamics

This unit introduces group dynamics as a scientific approach to understanding group behavior, focusing on internal forces and processes.

2.2 Group Dynamics: Definition

- **Definition**: A field of enquiry dedicated to advancing knowledge about the **nature of groups, laws of their development, and their interrelations** with individuals, other groups, and larger institutions.
- It implies an **interactive psychological relationship** where group members develop a **common perception based on feelings and emotions**.
- **"Group"** refers to two or more individuals sharing beliefs, values, common purpose, and having interdependent relations and a sense of belongingness.
- **"Dynamics"** means **force**; thus, group dynamics refers to **forces operating within the groups**.
- It is the study of **group processes, their objective analysis and measurement**, and the **effect of group membership on individual members**.
- Behavior changes through interaction in the group.
- It is influenced by **sympathy, suggestion, and imitation**.

2.2.1 Meaning, Concept and Importance of Group Dynamics

- **Concept**: Social psychologists explain group behavior through **social interaction and cultural transmission**. The interactive psychological relationship is "group dynamics".
- **Key Variables**:
    - **Group cohesiveness**: The degree to which members **stick together** (unity); based on attraction due to mutual need satisfaction. Influenced by task direction, personal attraction, and group prestige.
    - **Group locomotion**: The **movement towards the desired goal**.
- **Basic Assumptions (Cartwright and Zander, 1968)**:
    - Groups are **inevitable**.
    - Groups mobilize **powerful forces** that produce effects of utmost importance to individuals.
    - Groups can produce **constructive as well as destructive consequences**.
    - Correct understanding of group dynamics, based on empirical studies, enhances constructive aspects of group life and achievements.
- **Role in Social Change**: Group dynamics is helpful in understanding social changes, including overcoming resistance and introducing innovations, especially when the group shows readiness to change through active participation.
- **Specific Group Techniques** utilized for improvement:
    - **Buzz sessions**: Small group discussions for stimulating dialogue.
    - **Role playing**: Handling problems for the group's benefit.

    - **Brainstorming**: Group organized for stimulating discussion.
    - **Recreational experiences**: Opportunities for group members to participate in discussions.
- **Importance of Group Dynamics**:
    - Essential for **effective practice** with any type of task.
    - Promotes **productive meetings** (by preventing unproductive ones).
    - **Benefits individual members** and the group as a whole.
    - Reflects the **multicultural diversification** of society.
    - Influences the **future functioning** of the group.
    - **Facilitates member participation**.
    - Helps achieve group goals with **participation and satisfaction**.
    - Increases **interpersonal attraction**.
    - Increases **communication processes and interaction patterns**.
    - Increases the **power and control** of the group.
    - Creates impact on **racial, ethnic, and cultural background**.

2.2.2 Role of Communication in Group Dynamics

- Communication is the **transmission of a message** from a sender to a receiver.
- **Components of Communication (Toseland and Rivas, 2001)**:
    - **Encoding** of perceptions, thoughts, and feelings into language/symbols by a sender.
    - **Transmission** of language/symbols (verbally, non-verbally, or virtually).
    - **Decoding** of the message by the receiver.
- **Interaction patterns are fundamental** to group dynamics.
- **Factors influencing Interaction Patterns (David, 1980)**:
    - **Leader** as a central figure.
    - Members **taking turns** talking.
    - **Extension** between leader and member.
    - All members **freely communicate**.
    - Degree of **centralization of communication**.
    - **Group-centered interaction** is more valued than leader-centered.
    - **Full participation** among members.
    - **Status and power relationships** within the group.
    - **Interpersonal attraction and emotional bonds** between members.
    - **Size of the group** (small groups generally have more communication chances).
    - **Selective attention, clues, and reinforcement** can change patterns.
    - **Sub-group formation** if members don't interact with equal valence.
    - **Physical arrangement** in some situations.
- Communication processes and interaction patterns are crucial for group dynamics.

2.2.3 Interpersonal Attraction and Cohesion in Group Dynamics

- **Sub-group formation** and the level of **cohesion depend on interpersonal attraction** among group members.

- **Factors Increasing Interpersonal Attraction**:
    - **Proximity** (increases interaction).
    - **Similarity**.
    - **Acceptance and approval**.
    - Meeting members' expectations in group interactions.
    - **Compatibility**.
- **Group Cohesion**: The **sum of all forces** that are exerted on members to **remain in a group**.
- **Benefits of Cohesion**: Satisfaction of members' need for affiliation, recognition, and security; increased prestige and resources.
- **High levels of cohesion associated with beneficial group member behaviors (Toseland and Rivas, 2001)**:
    - Greater **perseverance towards group goals**.
    - **Willingness to take responsibilities** for group functioning.
    - **Willingness to express feelings**.
    - **Willingness to listen**.
    - Ability to use **feedback and evaluations**.
- **Positive Outcomes of High Cohesion**:
    - Greater satisfaction with the group experience.
    - Higher levels of **goal attainment**.
    - Greater **commitment** by group members.
    - Increased feelings of **self-confidence, self-esteem, and personal adjustment**.
- **Potential Negative**: High cohesion can lead to **dependence on the group**, where some members remain silent.

2.2.4 Group Dynamics and Social Integration

- **Social Integration**: How group members **fit together and are accepted** in the group.
- **Norms, roles, and status** are group dynamics that **promote social integration** by influencing member behavior.
- They help groups **avoid conflict and unpredictability** (chaos).
- A high level of social integration is necessary for a group to function effectively.
- It helps build **unanimity about group purposes and goals**.
- **Forms of Social Influence (Deutsch and Gerard, 1955)**:
    - **Normative influence**: The desire to **meet other people’s expectations** and to be accepted by others.
    - **Informational influence**: **Accepting and being persuaded by information provided by others**.
- **Norms** develop slowly as members experience what is valued and preferred behavior through interaction.
- **Roles** are shared expectations about the functioning of individual members.
- **Status** refers to the **ranking of importance** of members relative to each other, determined by prestige, power, position, and expertise. It can change with group membership and is situation-dependent.

- Norms, roles, and status are crucial components of the social influence groups exert on members.

2.3 Culture and Group

- **Culture** (values, beliefs, traditions) influences individual personality and is **shared by group members**.
- Group members explore their value systems and interpersonal styles to find common ground.
- The **culture of a group is determined by its commonality and the larger society**.
- **Multicultural differences** are significant interpersonal factors impacting group culture.
- Group processes may reflect values like individualism, independence, competitiveness, and achievement (e.g., European/American values).
- Cultural experiences (e.g., group survival, social hierarchy, ethnic identification) influence how members interact.
- Member expectations and goals vary widely in multicultural groups, significantly influencing group dynamics.
- Group leaders should be sensitive to racial/ethnic and socio-economic differences and understand their effect on group dynamics.

2.4 Measurement of Group Dynamics

- Measuring group dynamics is essential for understanding both the group as a whole and individual members.
- Various **scales are used** (e.g., Group Climate Questionnaire, Group Cohesiveness Scale, Group Work Engagement Measure, Group Member Interpersonal Process Scale).
- The **synergy created when people work together** in task groups (committees, teams) transcends individual efforts.
- Paying attention to group dynamics facilitates member participation and satisfaction to achieve group goals.

2.5 Group Development

- Group dynamic processes evolve as groups develop over time.
- **Well-known Models**:
    - **Tuckman (1963) Stage Model** (mentioned in Unit 1):
        1. **Forming**
        2. **Storming**
        3. **Norming**
        4. **Performing**
    - **Garland, Jones, and Kolody (1976) Model** (Five Significant Stages):
        1. **Pre-affiliation**: Should be affected to the group.
        2. **Power and control**: Should be able to have some influence over other members.
        3. **Intimacy**: There must be certain closeness and intimacy.

4. **Differentiation**: Group members should be able to differentiate their personal goals from group goals.
5. **Separation**: Each influence has a separate identity despite being part of the group.

- **Beginning Stages of Development**: Characterized by tentative interaction, establishment of norms, roles, and status hierarchies, and the slow emergence of a group culture.
- Initially, interaction is cautious with little conflict; later, resistance can develop as members seek to maintain identity while becoming part of the group.
- **Structural characteristics** have an important impact on group development.

UNIT 3: Social Identity, Crowding and Crowd Behaviour

This unit explores social identity theory, definitions and types of crowds, and theories of crowd behavior.

3.2 Social Identity Theory

- **Core Idea**: People **think, feel, and act as members of groups, institutions, and cultures**.
- **Self-Concept and Social Identity**: Our self-concept is acquired through interaction and includes beliefs and feelings about oneself. **Social identity** encompasses how we conceptualize and evaluate ourselves.
- **Group Membership and Self-Esteem**: People seek group membership to **affirm self-esteem**. To truly feel self-esteem, they must believe they are in the "right group," creating a need for **positive distinction from other groups**.
- **Developed by Tajfel and Turner (1979)**: Highlighted that a person has **multiple "social identities"** corresponding to widening circles of group membership.
- **Variables Contributing to In-group Favoritism (Tajfel & Turner, 1979)**:
    1. The extent to which individuals **identify with an in-group** to internalize that group.
    2. The extent to which the context provides ground for **comparison between groups**.
    3. The **perceived relevance of the comparison group**, influenced by the in-group's relative and absolute status.
- **Impact**: Has considerable impact on social psychology (e.g., prejudice, stereotyping, negotiation) and implications for social and organizational change.
- **Composed of Four Elements**:
    1. **Categorisation**
    2. **Identification**
    3. **Comparison**
    4. **Psychological distinctiveness**

- Social identities are associated with **normative rights, obligations, and sanctions** that form roles within specific collectivities.

3.3 Definition of Crowd

- **Definition**: A **physically compact organization of human beings** brought into **direct, temporary, and unorganized contact** with one another. It is the **most transitory and unstable** of social groups.
- **Key Aspects of Crowd Behavior**:
    - **Psychological continuity**.
    - **Polarisation of interest and attention**.
    - **Transitory and temporary character**.
- A crowd collects due to temporary causes (curiosity, interest) and dissolves when the cause vanishes.
- **Characteristics of a Crowd**:
    - No predetermined aim, definite time, or place.
    - Members are temporarily identified with a common interest.
    - Motivated by emotions and can become uncontrollable.
    - Behavior is not certain, and members stimulate each other.
    - Generally uncontrolled, unorganized, and disordered.
    - Curiosity, values, and emotions are temporarily identical due to common interest.
    - Individuals in a crowd may lose self-control and engage in different activities.
- **Explanations for Violent Crowd Behavior**:
    - **Frustration-aggression hypothesis** (Dollard, 1939).
    - **Emergent norms** (Turner, 1964) - contagion facilitated by mixing and close proximity.
    - Convergence of people with varying interests/abilities who share common qualities like hostility or aggressiveness.

3.3.1 Active Crowd Active crowds are classified into four types:

- **Aggressive Crowd**: In an **aggressive and destructive frame of mind**, capable of irrationality, brutality, and inhumanity, exhibiting tremendous excitement.
- **Panicky Crowd**: Members are **crazed with fear**, unable to think, primarily concerned with saving their lives.
- **Acquisitive Crowd**: Members' objective is to **obtain or acquire something** (e.g., a ticket, kerosene).
- **Expressive Crowd**: People gathered to **give expression or manifest their demands or sentiments**, with relatively less desire for violence.

3.3.2 Inactive Crowd

- No crowd is completely inactive; the difference from active crowds is relative. An inactive crowd resembles an audience.

3.4 Crowd Psychology

- Refers to studies and theories regarding **crowd behavior and the psychological causes and effects of crowd participation**.
- **Le Bon (1895, "The Crowd")**: Suggested that people in a crowd **lose individuality, autonomy, personal judgment, and morality** (Carl Jung called this "collective unconscious").
- **Convergence Theory**: Posits that crowd acts unified not due to a collective "mind" but because **like-minded people are attracted** to the crowd situation.

3.5 Crowd Behaviour

- In a crowd, individuals experience a **loss of individuality**, and a form of **group consciousness** develops, leading to a sympathetic emotional participation common to all. Appeals and slogans are common features.
- Crowd behavior can be seen as the **release of repressed drives**, manifesting as suggestibility, exaltation, and a lack of self-consciousness.
- It serves as a **temporary collectivity** where thwarted impulses find an outlet.

3.6 Theories of Crowd Behaviour

- **3.6.1 Classical Theory (Le Bon)**:
    - Suggests that the **minds of the group merge to form a collective way of thinking**. Individuals do not think individually but through the "group mind".
    - Crowds foster **anonymity and emotion**. Unconscious motives become more active, and personal conscious motivation sinks, leading to uninhibited behavior.
- **3.6.2 Convergence Theory**:
    - Crowd behavior is **not generated by the crowd itself**, but is **carried into the crowd by particular individuals**.
    - People who wish to act in a certain way come together to form crowds, expressing existing beliefs and values.
- **3.6.3 Group Mind Theory**:
    - Advocated by Lebon, Espinas, Trotter, Durkheim, Mc. Dougall, and Allport.
    - The individual in the crowd **loses individuality and becomes part of a collective "crowd consciousness"**.
    - Mentality becomes **de-individualized**, and actions become more emotional and less rational, influenced by slogans and suggestions.
    - **Lebon**: Conscious personality vanishes as sentiments and ideas align.
    - **Espinas**: Calls it "social consciousness," formed from collective individual consciousness.
    - **Trotter**: Man's gregarious instinct makes him accept group commands without argument.
    - **Durkheim**: A **collective consciousness** is created by mutual idea exchange, differing in quality from individual consciousness.
    - **Mc.Dougall**: Each group has its own mind, influencing individual thinking.

    - **Allport**: Behavior influenced by **social facilitation and inter-stimulation** (mutual motivation), curbing reasoning and increasing suggestibility.
- Crowd behavior can be an expression of repressed impulses, but not always.
- In a crowd, differences (e.g., status) are submerged, and all act as one.
- It is learned, and individual responsibility is often "blotted out" due to **de-individualization**, leading to reduced inner restraint.

Public and Crowd: Distinction

- **Commonalities**: Both are collectivities of people and generally unorganized.
- **Differences**:
    - **Physical Contact**: **Crowd** involves physical contact; **Public** is scattered.
    - **Size**: **Public** is much bigger than a crowd.
    - **Stimulus**: Stimulus in a **crowd** is simultaneous; in a **public**, it is diffused.
    - **Suggestibility**: A **crowd** is more suggestible than a public.

3.7 Collective Behaviour

- **Definition**: All **social interactions** where **two or more persons behave in the same way**.
- Occurs in situations where **conventional guidelines and formal authority fail** to provide direction.
- Can be both a cause and effect of social unrest, potentially leading to new norms and social change.
- **Special Features**:
    - Occurs in **occasional episodes** rather than routinely.
    - **Not regulated by particular rules or procedures**.
    - Generally guided by **unreasoning beliefs, hopes, fears, or hatreds**.
    - **Unpredictable**.
- Involves a **crisis or break in regular routines**. Social movements and revolutions fall under this category.
- A **crowd is more stable than a mob** and can turn into a mob under stress. Crowd behavior includes mob and audience behavior.
- **Casual crowd**: Short, loosely organized, motivated by attraction of the moment (e.g., accident scene).
- **Conventional crowd**: Directed by conventional rules (e.g., religious festivals).

3.7.1 Mass Society

- Characterized by **rationality, impersonal relations, extreme specialization of roles, and loneliness** for the individual despite high population density.
- Suggestion, persuasion, and propaganda are common.
- Modern cities lead to reduced personal contacts, creating insecurity and loneliness, which people try to overcome through voluntary organizations.

- The desire for crowd contacts often leads to **irrationality and susceptibility to propaganda**.

3.7.2 Audience

- A **polarized crowd that assembles in one place**, indicating mental unity.
- **Types**:
    - **Casual audience**: Congregate spontaneously (e.g., seeing a street quarrel).
    - **Scheduled audience**: Assembles by design (e.g., in a lecture or cinema hall).
- **Interaction**: Occurs between the audience and speaker/actor, and among audience members themselves.
- Aims include gaining facts/interpretations and experiencing emotional appeals.
- Rapport building is crucial (e.g., for musicians). Group singing can reduce isolation and build common emotions.

3.7.3 Mob

- Members tend to show **similarity in feelings, thoughts, and actions** regardless of background.
- React to a common object in a common way, often with **heightened emotionality** (anger, fear, joy).
- Can be unreasonable, intolerant, and fickle-minded.
- **Most common characteristic is a diminished sense of responsibility**.
- May engage in destructive behavior (e.g., destroying property).
- Mechanisms of interaction observed: **suggestion, imitation, and sympathy**.
- Behavior is influenced by individual predisposition and situational characteristics.

3.7.4 Fashion

- An important example of **collective action**, sharing commonalities with crowd behavior.
- A variation permissible within custom limits, based on the **desire for change and novelty**.
- It is a psychological reaction, stemming from emotional and irrational tendencies.
- Can satisfy the desire for conformity, security, and social solidarity.
- The term 'collective behavior' now encompasses 'audience behavior,' 'mob behavior,' 'social movement,' etc..

UNIT 4: Cooperation, Competition and Conflicts

This unit examines social interaction, and specifically the processes of cooperation, competition, and conflict, and their importance in human relationships.

4.2 Social Interaction and Social Process

- **Social Interaction**: The **mutual influences** affecting individuals and groups in their efforts to solve problems and achieve goals (Green). It is the **reciprocal influence** human beings exert on each other through inter-stimulation and response (Gish). It is the **essence of social life**.
- **Two Essential Conditions for Social Interaction**:
    1. **Social contact**: The first phase, established through various media (radio, letters, phones). Can be positive (leading to cooperation, understanding) or negative (leading to hatred, conflict).
    2. **Communication**: Essential adjuncts of social contact, using language, gestures, symbols, and various media.
- **Social Process**: The **manner in which the relations of group members acquire a distinctive character** (MacIver). Ways of interacting that establish systems of relationships or describe changes in existing modes of life (Gillin and Gillin).
- **Main Forms of Social Interaction** (also called social processes):
    1. **Cooperation**
    2. **Competition**
    3. **Conflict**
    4. **Accommodation**
    5. **Assimilation**
- **Essential Elements of Social Process**:
    1. Sequence of events.
    2. Repetition of events.
    3. Relationship between events.
    4. Continuity of events.
    5. Special results.
- Social interaction is of a dual nature: persons with persons, and groups with groups.
- Society is an arena where different social processes are expressed, fundamental to community life.
- Two forms of social interaction: **conjunctive** and **disjunctive**.

4.3 Cooperation

- **Definition**: An **integrating activity**, often seen as the opposite of competition. It means "**working together**" (from Latin "co" + "operari").
- It is a **joint activity in pursuit of common goals or shared rewards**.
- A **goal-oriented and conscious form of social interaction**.
- Involves two elements: **common end** and **organized effort**.
- Example: Volunteers working together for a festival's success.
- **Factors Bringing About Cooperation**:
    - Desire for individual benefits.
    - Desire to give and share.
    - Total decision on common purposes.
    - Situational necessity.
    - Desire to achieve larger goals.

4.3.1 Types of Cooperation Cooperation can be classified into five categories:

1. **Direct Cooperation**: People do identical things together that could also be done separately (e.g., playing together, worshiping together).
2. **Indirect Cooperation**: Individuals work towards a common end, but **each has their own specialized functions** (more prevalent in modern society due to specialization).
3. **Primary Cooperation**: Characterized by an **identity of interest between the individual and the group**, found in **primary groups** like families or peer groups with face-to-face relations.
4. **Secondary Cooperation**: Generally found in **secondary groups** like government, industry, churches, or trade unions.
5. **Tertiary Cooperation**: Interaction between various groups (big and small) to meet a particular situation, where attitudes are often **purely opportunistic** (e.g., competitors cooperating for a specific purpose).

4.3.2 Role of Cooperation

- A **universal phenomenon** and both a psychological and social necessity for human beings.
- **Individual as well as collective goals cannot be achieved without cooperation**.
- Essential for the **maintenance of social order**.
- People learn their first lessons in cooperation as family members.
- Physical, mental, and spiritual needs remain unsatisfied if an individual does not cooperate with others.

4.4 Competition

- **Definition**: The **most important form of social struggle**. It is an **impersonal, unconscious, continuous struggle** for something that is in limited supply (Sutherland, Woodward, Maxwell).
- It is a form of interaction and a **struggle for position or economic status**.
- Occurs when there is an insufficient supply of desired goods (material or non-material).
- Like cooperation, it is **indispensable in social life** and performs many useful functions.
- Can occur at economic, cultural, social, and political levels. No society is exclusively competitive or cooperative.

4.4.1 Characteristics of Competition

- **Impersonal struggle**: Usually not directed against a specific individual or group (Park & Burgess: "interaction without social contact").
- **Universal**: Found in all societies, though the degree varies.
- **Conducive to progress**: Provides opportunities for new experiences and recognition.
- Mainly **unconscious activity** (though personal rivalry is conscious).
- May create **emotional disturbances**.
- An innate tendency and a social phenomenon.

- Its degree is determined by social values and social structure.

4.4.2 Value of Competition (Positive Functions)

- Helps **determine the status and location** of individuals in a hierarchy.
- Stimulates **economy, efficiency, and inventiveness**.
- **Enhances one's ego**.
- **Prevents undue concentration of power** in an individual or group.
- Creates **respect for the rules** of the group.
- Determines who performs what function (Ross).
- **Fair competition is conducive to economic as well as social progress** and encourages achieved status.
- **Negative Functions**: Can lead to frustration, monopoly, conflict, emotional disturbances, and unfriendly attitudes; unfair competition has disintegrating effects.

4.5 Conflict

- **Definition**: A **conscious action** and a **deliberate intent to oppose**. It is a **universal phenomenon** but lacks continuity and is a personal activity.
- Gillin and Gillin: "The social process in which individuals or groups seek their ends up **directly challenging the antagonist by violence or threat of violence**".
- Green: "The deliberate attempt to **oppose, resist and coerce the will of another** or others".
- It is competition in its more occasional, personal, and hostile forms, seeking to eliminate or weaken competitors.
- **Opposite of cooperation**. May lead to antagonism, violence, or threat to peace. It is a non-associative social process.

4.5.1 Causes of Conflict

- **Innate instinct for aggression** in man (Freud).
- **Clash of interest** within groups and societies, and between them.
- **Individual differences**: Nature, attributes, interests, personalities.
- **Cultural differences**: Between groups.
- **Differences of opinion regarding interest**: E.g., employers vs. employees.
- **Social change**: An expression of social disequilibrium and cultural lag.

4.5.2 Characteristics of Conflict

- Universal, but its nature varies; no society is characterized exclusively by conflict.
- **Conscious action** where members oppose one another to achieve goals.
- Leads to **social change** and is an expression of disequilibrium.
- Primarily personal activity, but can involve many people and even entire society.
- Root cause often involves **asymmetrical social, political, economic relations** coupled with **relative deprivation**.
- Can be the "life of society," leading to progress through struggle.

- Probability of conflict increases when people organize into groups for a common goal.
- Not all conflicts are the same, occurring at all levels (family, friends, co-workers).
- An **ever-present process** in human relations.
- **Unmanaged conflict** threatens group survival and effectiveness.
- Can occur **within groups (intra-group)** and **among groups (inter-group)**.

4.5.3 Effects of Conflict Conflict has both **positive and negative impacts**:

- **Negative Effects**:
    - Increases **tension** within or between groups.
    - **Disrupts normal activities**.
    - **Weakens group activities**.
    - **Harmful to individuals**.
    - Increases **bitterness and alienation**.
    - Can become **violent**.
- **Positive Effects**:
    - Helps to **restructure the group**.
    - Helps to **form new groups**.
    - Gives **positive results**.
    - **Improves decision-making processes**.
    - Helps to gain **recognition**.
    - Increases **unity and cohesion**.
    - Strengthens **group boundaries**.

4.5.4 Types of Conflict Conflict can be classified in various ways:

- **Overt vs. Covert (Latent)**: Manifested vs. invisible.
- **Personal vs. Corporate**: Within a group (hostility, jealousy) vs. among groups/societies.
- **Temporary vs. Perpetual**: Short-term (e.g., in a bus, shop, or on the road) vs. long-term (e.g., between rival groups).
- Conflict is not continuous; it has intermittent periods of peace.
- **Gillin and Gillin's Five Types**:
    - **Personal conflict**: Between two persons within the same group.
    - **Racial conflict**: Result of racial superiority/inferiority feelings.
    - **Class conflict**: Between two classes.
    - **Political conflict**: Between parties vying for political power.
    - **International conflict**: Between two nations.

4.5.5 Distinction between Conflict and Competition

Feature	Conflict	Competition
Consciousness	**Conscious level**	**Unconscious**

Violence	May create **violence**	**Non-violent**
Contact	Involves **contact**	Does **not** involve contact
Continuity	An **intermittent process**	A **continuous process**
Social Norms	**Disregards** social norms	**Cares for** social norms

- Both have a common root: striving towards **incompatible goals**.
- Conflict can lead to **alliances with other groups**, creating bonds against a common threat.
- Group structure and tolerance for conflict affect outcomes.
- Conflict is a fundamental human and social trait; **cooperation is a condition of conflict**.

4.6 Accommodation

- **Definition**: The **resolution of conflicts**, meaning **adjusting oneself to a new environment**.
- MacIver: "The process on which man attains a **sense of harmony with his environments**".
- It is the sequence of steps by which persons are **reconciled to changed conditions of life**.
- Sociologists use it to describe the **adjustment of hostile individuals or groups**.
- Involves internal adjustments to social situations created by competition and conflict.
- Associated with a **fixed social order**, custom, and mores.
- **Assimilation** implies a more thorough personality transformation, gradual under intimate social contacts.
